TAMIL NADU AGRICULTURAL UNIVERSITY

B.Sc. (Hons) Agriculture — 2025 Syllabus

AEX 102
Rural Sociology and Educational Psychology

Lecture-wise Theory Study Material

First Year • First Semester • All 33 Lectures

Complete lecture notes with real diagrams, tables,
worked examples and end-of-lecture “Exam focus” sections

For classroom study and examination preparation

How This Material Is Organised

This study material follows the **AEX 102** syllabus exactly, lecture by lecture, in the same order as the syllabus. Each lecture is written as one numbered chapter. Every chapter contains, in a predictable pattern, the things that are actually asked in university examinations:

- **Headed sections** that expand each sub-topic of the syllabus line.
- **Plain-English definitions** in a shaded box, so that a definition can be reproduced word for word.
- **Tables** that compare, classify or list — the easiest marks to secure in an examination.
- **Diagrams** (real figures, not rough sketches) placed inside the lecture where they belong.
- **Worked examples** showing how a concept is applied in a real Tamil Nadu village situation.
- An **Exam focus** section at the end: key points, short-answer questions with model answers, and long-answer questions with model answer outlines.

Indian and Tamil Nadu examples are used throughout — Thanjavur and delta villages, self-help groups, farmer producer organisations, Krishi Vigyan Kendra (KVK) training, panchayat institutions, and the working of caste and class in rural Tamil Nadu. The language is kept simple and exam-oriented.

How to use these notes

1. Read the lecture once for understanding, without memorising.
2. Learn the definition boxes verbatim — most one-mark and two-mark questions come from them.
3. Redraw each diagram by hand at least once; diagram questions carry full marks only when labelled.
4. Work through the worked example; the same method is often asked as a short numerical or applied question.
5. Finish with the Exam focus section and attempt the questions before reading the model answers.

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Lecture 1: Extension Education and Agricultural Extension — Meaning, Definition, Scope and Importance

1.1 Meaning of Extension Education

The word **extension** means to extend, to spread out, or to reach out. In education it means carrying useful knowledge and skills from centres of learning (universities, research stations, laboratories) to the people who need them in their own homes and fields. Extension education is, therefore, education *for* the people, *of* the people and *by* the people, taken to where they live and work.

Extension education is not the same as formal schooling. It is non-formal, out-of-school, voluntary, practical and continuous. The classroom is the farmer's field, the cattle shed, the village street and the community hall. The learner is an adult who comes to learn by his own choice and who learns best by doing.

> **Definition — Extension Education**
> "Extension education is a branch of education which deals with the needs and interests of the people living in rural areas, and which aims at changing their knowledge, skills, attitudes and behaviour through informal and voluntary means." — **Ensminger**

> **Definition — Agricultural Extension**
> "Agricultural extension is the process of helping farmers, through educational procedures, to improve farming methods and techniques, increase production and income, and raise their standard of living." — **Van den Ban and Hawkins** (in substance)

1.2 Definitions given by important authors

- **Leagans:** Extension education is an applied behavioural science, the knowledge of which is applied to bring about desirable changes in the behaviour of the people.
- **Mildred Horton:** Extension is a process of working with rural people in an effort to improve their standard of living, and it involves change in the knowledge, attitude and skills of the people.
- **Chitambar:** Extension is a service or system which assists farm people through educational procedures in improving their farming methods and techniques.
- **Kelsey and Hearne:** Extension is an out-of-school system of education in which adults and young people learn by doing.

From these definitions four common ideas emerge: **(i)** it is education; **(ii)** it is informal and out-of-school; **(iii)** it works with rural people; and **(iv)** its purpose is a change in behaviour leading to a better standard of living.

1.3 Scope of extension education

The scope of extension education has widened far beyond crop production. It now covers the whole life of the farm family and of the village.

Table 1.1 — Scope of extension education (fields of work)

Field	What extension does in this field
Agriculture and horticulture	Improved seeds, planting methods, crop protection, kitchen gardens, fruit trees.
Animal husbandry	Improved breeds, feeding, health care, clean milk production.
Home science	Nutrition, food preservation, health and hygiene, child care, family budgeting.
Rural youth	4-H type clubs, youth leadership, sports, vocational skills.
Rural sociology	Understanding groups, leadership, caste, customs, social change in villages.
Agricultural economics and marketing	Cost of cultivation, credit, cooperative marketing, price information.
Rural development	Self-help groups, panchayat links, welfare schemes, women’s empowerment.

1.4 Importance of agricultural extension

- **Bridge between research and the farmer:** the scientist discovers, the extension worker transfers, the farmer adopts.
- **Increases production and income:** by teaching proven technology, extension raises yield and farm income.
- **Raises the standard of living:** better food, health, housing and education for the farm family.
- **Develops human resources:** farmers learn to think, decide and act for themselves.
- **Encourages self-reliance and leadership:** local leaders are identified and trained.
- **Removes ignorance and superstition:** scientific outlook replaces blind belief.
- **Supports national programmes:** extension carries schemes such as soil health cards, crop insurance and farmer producer organisations to the village.

1.5 The extension worker as a teacher

The extension worker is a teacher, a guide and a helper, not a supervisor or a government inspector. Three roles stand out. As a **teacher**, he brings new knowledge. As a **communicator**, he passes the message in a way the village understands. As a **change agent**, he helps the community to decide what change it wants and how to

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reach it. Success in extension depends more on understanding people than on knowing technology alone.

1.6 Extension education in the Tamil Nadu context

In Tamil Nadu, extension work is carried out by the Department of Agriculture (Village Extension Workers and Agricultural Officers), the Department of Agricultural Engineering, the Tamil Nadu Agricultural University (TNAU) through its Krishi Vigyan Kendras (KVKs), the Departments of Animal Husbandry and Horticulture, and co-operative institutions. A KVK in the delta region, for example, runs short training courses for farmers on system of rice intensification, integrated pest management and value addition. These are living examples of extension education in action.

1.7 Growth of extension education in India

Extension work in India did not begin all at once; it grew in stages, each stage adding a new idea to the one before. A brief history helps to place the present system in perspective.

Table 1.2 — Milestones in the growth of extension in India

Period / year	Development
Pre-independence	Gurgaon experiment, Sriniketan (Tagore) and Marthandam (Spencer Hatch) — early rural reconstruction work.
1952	Community Development Programme (CDP) launched to develop the whole village.
1953	National Extension Service (NES) set up to extend the programme.
1960s	Intensive Agricultural District Programme (IADP) and Intensive Agricultural Area Programme (IAAP).
1974	Training and Visit (T&V) system — regular, scheduled visits by trained workers.
1974 onwards	Krishi Vigyan Kendras (KVKs) set up for skill-based farmer training.
1998 onwards	Agricultural Technology Management Agency (ATMA) — decentralised, farmer-driven extension.
2000s onwards	e-Extension, mobile advisory services, Kisan Call Centres and farmer producer organisations.

Each stage teaches the same lesson: extension succeeds when it works *with* farmers and suits local conditions, and fails when it only delivers orders from above.

1.8 Formal education and extension education compared

Table 1.3 — Formal education versus extension education

Basis	Formal education	Extension education
Learner	Children and youth	Adults, mainly farmers and farm women
Place	School or college	Field, home, village, farm
Curriculum	Fixed, prescribed in advance	Flexible, based on felt needs
Attendance	Compulsory	Voluntary
Method	Mostly lecture and textbook	Learning by doing; many methods
Duration	Fixed years with examinations	Continuous, lifelong
Aim	Knowledge and certificates	Behaviour change and better living

Exam focus — Lecture 1

Key points

- Extension means to extend or reach out; extension education carries knowledge from centres of learning to the people.
- It is informal, out-of-school, voluntary, practical and continuous education.
- Ensminger, Leagans, Kelsey and Hearne, Chitambar and Van den Ban have given important definitions.
- The four common ideas: it is education; it is informal; it works with rural people; it aims at behaviour change.
- Scope covers agriculture, animal husbandry, home science, youth work, sociology, economics and rural development.
- Importance: research–farmer bridge, higher production and income, better standard of living, human resource development.
- The extension worker is a teacher, communicator and change agent — not an inspector.

Short-answer questions

1. Define extension education.

Extension education is an out-of-school system of education in which rural people learn by doing, and which aims to bring about desirable changes in their knowledge, skills, attitude and behaviour so as to improve their standard of living.

2. State any four items in the scope of extension education.

Agriculture and horticulture; animal husbandry; home science (nutrition, health, child care); rural youth work; agricultural economics and marketing; rural development.

3. Why is extension called a bridge between research and the farmer?

Research stations produce improved technology. The extension worker carries this technology to the farmer and carries the farmer’s problems back to the researcher. Thus extension links the two ends.

Long-answer questions

1. Explain the meaning, scope and importance of agricultural extension.

Outline: (i) Meaning of extension and extension education with one definition. (ii) Scope — list and explain the seven fields in Table 1.1. (iii) Importance — the seven points in Section 1.4, each with one sentence. (iv) Conclusion — extension as education for behaviour change.

2. “The extension worker is a teacher and a change agent.” Discuss.

Outline: Define the three roles (teacher, communicator, change agent). Explain why the extension worker is not an inspector. Give a Tamil Nadu example such

> as a KVK training programme. Conclude that understanding people is as important as knowing technology.

Lecture 2: Sociology and Rural Sociology — Meaning, Definition, Scope and Importance

2.1 Meaning of sociology

The word **sociology** comes from the Latin *socius* (companion or society) and the Greek *logos* (study or science). Sociology is, therefore, the science of society — the systematic study of human social life, social groups, social relationships, social institutions and social change. It studies how people live together, how they behave in groups, and how their behaviour is shaped by the society around them.

> **Definition — Sociology**
> "Sociology is the study of human society and of the ways in which people behave in groups." — **Morris Ginsberg**
> "Sociology is the science of social relationships." — **Auguste Comte** (regarded as the father of sociology)

2.2 Meaning of rural sociology

Rural sociology is that branch of sociology which studies rural society — the village community, its groups, its institutions, its customs and its patterns of living. It studies rural social life in all its aspects: family, caste, class, leadership, cooperation, conflict and change.

> **Definition — Rural Sociology**
> "Rural sociology is the study of rural society, its organisation, its institutions and the changes taking place in them." — **Chitambar**
> "Rural sociology is the science of rural society." — **Desai**

The main subject matter of rural sociology includes: rural social structure, rural social groups, rural institutions, rural social stratification (caste and class), rural culture and customs, rural leadership, rural social change, and rural problems such as poverty, illiteracy and migration.

2.3 Scope of rural sociology

Table 2.1 — Scope of rural sociology

Area	What it studies
Rural social structure	Village community, its size, settlement pattern and social organisation.
Rural social groups	Family, caste group, neighbourhood, cooperatives, youth clubs.
Rural institutions	Family, religion, education, economy and politics in the village.
Social stratification	Caste and class, hierarchy, mobility and inequality.
Rural culture	Customs, folkways, mores, taboos, rituals, beliefs and values.
Leadership and social control	Village leaders, panchayat, public opinion, gossip, ridicule.
Social change	Adoption, diffusion, migration, urbanisation and modernisation.

2.4 Importance of rural sociology

- **Understanding people:** it helps the extension worker to know how villagers think, feel and act.
- **Knowledge of groups:** it shows which groups influence decisions — family, caste, elders, youth.
- **Culture and customs:** it explains why a practice may be accepted or rejected in a village.
- **Programme planning:** plans made after studying rural society suit local needs better.
- **Identifying leaders:** it helps in finding and using the right local leaders.
- **Social change:** it teaches the process by which rural society changes and how extension can guide it.

2.5 Interrelationship between rural sociology and agricultural extension

Rural sociology and agricultural extension are two closely related fields. Rural sociology supplies the *understanding of people*; agricultural extension supplies the *technology and the teaching method*. One without the other is incomplete.

Table 2.2 — Rural sociology and agricultural extension: a two-way relationship

Contribution of rural sociology to extension	Contribution of extension to rural sociology
Explains the social environment in which the farmer works.	Provides a laboratory where social principles are tested in real villages.
Identifies social groups and leaders who can carry a message.	Generates new data on adoption, behaviour and change.
Explains customs, taboos and values that block or help change.	Shows how quickly or slowly customs actually change.
Helps plan programmes suited to local society.	Tests whether planned social change is workable.
Guides the selection and training of local leaders.	Builds leadership and group life in villages.

In short, **agricultural extension is applied rural sociology**. The extension worker uses the principles of rural sociology to bring about desirable change in the knowledge, attitude, skill and behaviour of the farm community.

Worked example — Using rural sociology before an extension campaign

An extension officer wants to introduce the **System of Rice Intensification (SRI)** in a Thanjavur delta village. Before the campaign he uses rural sociology as follows:

Sociological question	Finding in the village	Extension action taken
Who decides in a farm family?	The eldest male decides, but women manage nursery work.	Train both men and women; hold separate meetings.
Which group is trusted?	The local farmer interest group on paddy.	Use that group as the channel for demonstrations.
Which custom blocks change?	Fear that young seedlings will not survive.	Show a 12-day-old seedling demonstration on a neighbour's field.
Who is respected?	Two progressive farmers who already use SRI.	Use them as lay leaders and resource persons.

Result: adoption rose sharply because the technology was carried through the social structure instead of against it.

2.6 Sociology and its relation to other sciences; methods of study

Sociology is a social science. It is closely related to other fields of study, but it has its own subject-matter and its own methods.

Table 2.3 — Sociology and related fields

Related field	Relationship with sociology
Anthropology	Studies culture and human evolution; supplies much of the material on village and tribal life.
Economics	Studies production, distribution and consumption; sociology studies the social setting of economic activity.
Political science	Studies government and power; sociology studies the social bases of political behaviour.
Psychology	Studies the individual mind; sociology studies groups of individuals.
History	Records the past; sociology explains social processes that recur over time.

The main **methods of study** used in rural sociology are: the **survey** (asking many people a set of questions), the **case study** (studying one village or family in depth), **observation** (watching village life directly), the **interview** (guided conversation) and **sociometry** (measuring social relations by counting choices).

Exam focus — Lecture 2

Key points

- Sociology is the science of society and social relationships; Comte is the father of sociology.
- Rural sociology studies rural society, its groups, institutions and changes.
- Scope: social structure, groups, institutions, stratification, culture, leadership, social change.
- Importance: understanding people, groups, culture, planning, leadership and change.
- Rural sociology gives understanding; extension gives technology and method.
- Agricultural extension is applied rural sociology.
- The relationship is two-way: sociology guides extension, extension feeds data back to sociology.

Short-answer questions

1. Define rural sociology.
Rural sociology is the branch of sociology that studies rural society — its social structure, groups, institutions, culture and the changes taking place in them.

2. Give two contributions of rural sociology to agricultural extension.
It explains the social environment of the farmer and identifies the groups and leaders who can carry an extension message effectively.

3. Who is regarded as the father of sociology?
Auguste Comte.

Long-answer questions

1. Explain the meaning, scope and importance of rural sociology.
Outline: Meaning and definition (Chitambar, Desai). Scope — the seven areas in Table 2.1. Importance — the six points in Section 2.4. Conclusion.

2. Discuss the interrelationship between rural sociology and agricultural extension.
Outline: Define both fields. Two-way relationship table. Explain that extension is applied rural sociology. Give a Tamil Nadu example (SRI campaign). Conclusion.

Lecture 3: Indian Rural Society — Important Characteristics; Rural and Urban Societies Compared

3.1 Meaning of rural society

Rural society is a society in which the majority of people live in villages, depend mainly on agriculture and allied occupations, and live in small, close communities. In India, the village has always been the basic unit of social life. Even today a large part of the population lives in villages, and agriculture remains the main source of livelihood.

3.2 Important characteristics of Indian rural society

- **Agriculture as the main occupation:** most families depend on crop production, livestock and allied work. In the Thanjavur delta, for instance, paddy cultivation shapes the whole village calendar.
- **Small size and low density:** villages are small and settlements are scattered.
- **Close contact and personal relations:** people know one another; relations are face-to-face and durable.
- **Joint family system:** the joint family is still common, though it is slowly breaking up.
- **Importance of caste:** caste influences marriage, occupation, residence and social standing.
- **Strong religious faith:** festivals, temple rituals and beliefs guide daily life.
- **Informal social control:** custom, public opinion, elders and the panchayat control behaviour more than law.
- **Simplicity and homogeneity:** dress, food, language and customs are broadly similar.
- **Attachment to land and tradition:** land is valued not only as property but as family honour.
- **Slow rate of change:** change does take place, but slowly; traditions resist quick change.

3.3 Rural and urban societies compared

The clearest way to understand rural society is to compare it with urban society. Fig. 1 gives the comparison in pictorial form; the table below gives it in words.

Fig. 1 Rural and Urban Society: A Comparison of Features

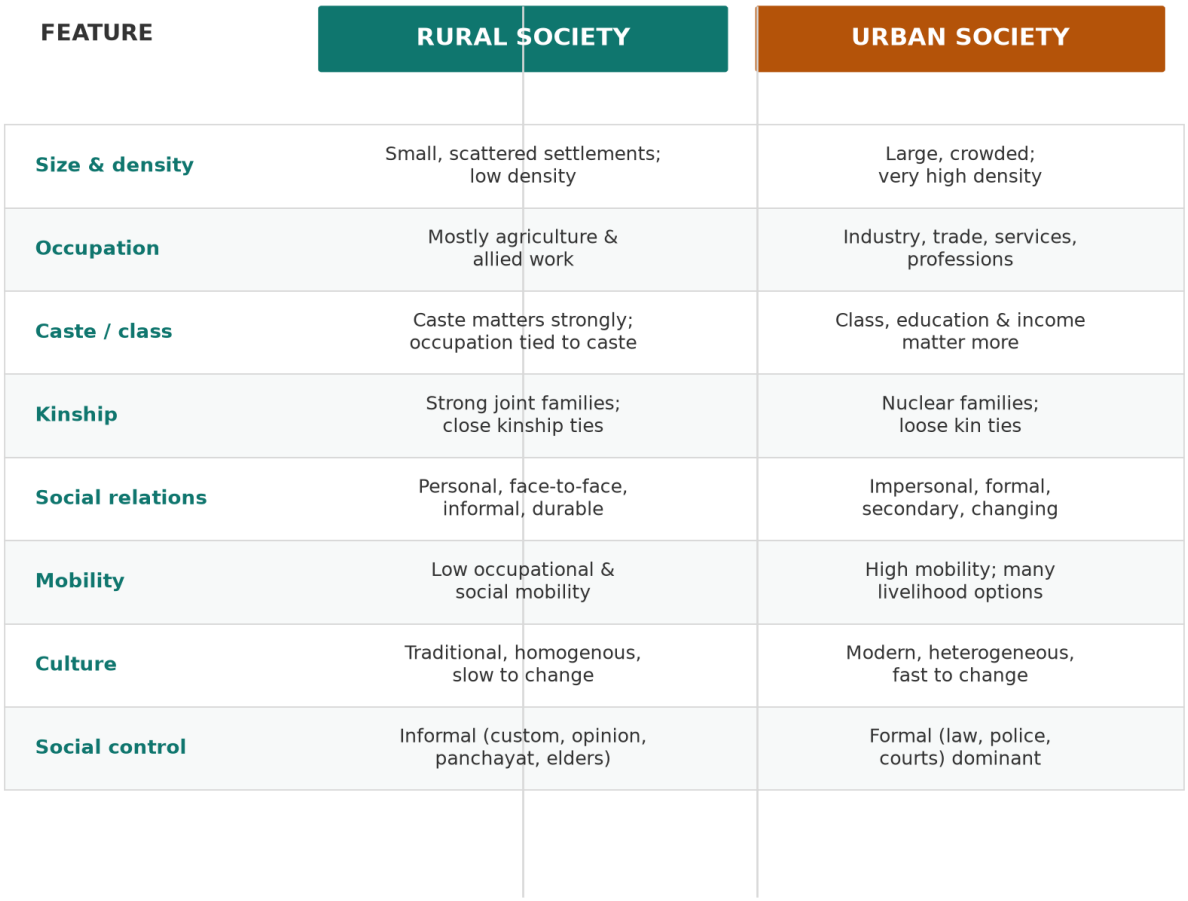


Fig. 1 — Rural and urban society: a comparison of features.

Table 3.1 — Differences between rural and urban societies

Basis	Rural society	Urban society
Occupation	Mainly agriculture and allied work	Industry, trade, services and professions
Size and density	Small, scattered, low density	Large, crowded, high density
Social relations	Personal, informal, face-to-face	Impersonal, formal, secondary
Family	Joint family common	Nuclear family common
Social stratification	Caste and class both important; caste strong	Class, education and income matter more
Social mobility	Low	High
Social control	Informal — custom, opinion, elders, panchayat	Formal — law, police, courts
Culture	Traditional, homogeneous, slow change	Modern, heterogeneous, fast change
Density of population	Low	High
Standard of living	Generally lower	Generally higher

3.4 Relationship between rural and urban societies

Rural and urban societies are not two separate worlds. They are linked by a continuous flow of people, goods and ideas.

- **Migration:** villagers move to towns for education, jobs and marriage.
- **Market links:** farm produce goes to urban markets; urban goods come back to villages.
- **Remittances:** money sent home by migrants supports village families.
- **Ideas and media:** radio, television and mobile phones bring urban ideas into the village.
- **Services:** schools, hospitals, banks and colleges in towns serve villagers too.

Because of these links, the line between rural and urban is slowly becoming less sharp, a process called **rurbanisation**.

3.5 The village community as a social unit

The village is the oldest and most enduring social unit of Indian life. It is a **community** because its members live in a definite area, share a common life and satisfy most of their needs within it. The village has its own boundaries, its own customs, its own leaders and its own pattern of mutual help. Even though modern transport and media have widened the villager’s world, the village community still shapes daily life.

Villages differ in the way their houses are arranged. The main settlement patterns are:

Table 3.2 — Types of village settlement

Type	Feature and example
Nucleated (clustered)	Houses built close together in one cluster; very common in the plains of Tamil Nadu.
Dispersed (scattered)	Houses and farms spread out; common in hilly and tribal areas.
Linear	Houses arranged in a line along a road, river or canal.
Hamleted	A main village with several small hamlets or *cheris* attached.

Understanding the settlement pattern helps the extension worker to plan visits: in a nucleated village a single meeting reaches many people, while in a dispersed village more visits are needed.

Exam focus — Lecture 3

Key points

- Rural society: majority live in villages and depend on agriculture.
- Characteristics: agriculture, small size, close contact, joint family, caste, religion, informal control, slow change.
- Rural–urban differences: occupation, density, relations, family, mobility, social control, culture.
- Rural and urban societies are linked by migration, markets, remittances, media and services.
- Rurbanisation means the blurring of the rural–urban line.

Short-answer questions

1. State any four characteristics of Indian rural society.

Agriculture as the main occupation; small size and low density; close personal relations and joint family; importance of caste and religion; informal social control; slow rate of change.

2. What is meant by rurbanisation?

Rurbanisation is the process by which rural and urban areas become socially and economically interlinked, so that the sharp differences between village and town begin to reduce.

3. How does social control differ between rural and urban society?

In rural society social control is mainly informal (custom, public opinion, elders, panchayat); in urban society it is mainly formal (law, police, courts).

Long-answer questions

1. Describe the important characteristics of Indian rural society.

Outline: Meaning of rural society; the ten characteristics in Section 3.2, each explained in one or two sentences with a village example; conclusion.

2. Compare rural and urban societies and explain their relationship.

Outline: Present Table 3.1 (any eight bases); explain the five links of migration, market, remittances, media and services; mention rurbanisation; conclusion.

Lecture 4: Rationale of Understanding the Traits of Rural Society for Effective Extension Work

4.1 Why the extension worker must understand rural society

An extension worker may know the best seed and the latest method, yet fail completely if he does not understand the people he is teaching. Rural society has its own customs, leaders, fears and hopes. Technology succeeds only when it fits this social setting. Understanding the traits of rural society is, therefore, not a luxury but a necessity for effective extension work.

4.2 Reasons why this understanding is essential

- **To identify real needs:** the felt needs of farmers, not the needs imagined by the officer, must guide the programme.
- **To plan suitable programmes:** plans must suit local crops, seasons, customs and resources.
- **To choose the right method:** a village that trusts elders responds to personal visits; a youth club responds to demonstrations and competitions.
- **To identify and use local leaders:** the influential persons differ from village to village.
- **To avoid cultural conflict:** customs and taboos must be respected, not broken.
- **To gain acceptance and trust:** a worker who respects village ways is welcomed; one who mocks them is avoided.
- **To communicate effectively:** language, idiom and examples must be familiar to the listeners.
- **To predict and reduce resistance:** knowing the likely objections in advance helps to answer them.
- **To bring lasting change:** change that grows from within the society lasts; change imposed from outside dies quickly.

4.3 How traits of rural society affect extension work

Table 4.1 — Rural traits and their effect on extension

Trait of rural society	Effect on extension work
Strong caste feeling	Messages must be carried through all caste groups; a single group cannot be ignored.
Joint family	Decisions may rest with the head of the family; he must be approached.
Religious faith and rituals	Agricultural operations are timed with festivals and auspicious days.
Informal social control	Public opinion and elders can help or block a programme.
Attachment to tradition	New practices need demonstrations and proof before acceptance.
Low literacy	Spoken word, pictures and demonstrations work better than printed matter.
Group loyalty	Working through groups (SHG, FPO, interest group) is faster than working with individuals.

Worked example — A behaviour analysis of why a recommendation failed

A block officer recommended a new hybrid maize in a village. Only 4 of 40 farmers adopted it. A study of rural traits explained the failure:

Observation	Rural trait involved	Lesson for extension
Farmers waited to see the result on the leader's field.	Respect for leaders; risk avoidance.	Use a leader's field as the demonstration plot.
Elders feared the hybrid needed costly inputs.	Attachment to tradition; fear of debt.	Give full cost figures and credit options first.
Women, who do the harvest work, were not informed.	Joint family division of labour.	Include women in the training.
Meeting was held on a festival day.	Religious and social calendar.	Check the village calendar before fixing dates.

When the same recommendation was repeated with these changes, adoption rose to 22 of 40 farmers in one season.

4.4 Principles of working with rural people

From a study of rural traits, certain principles of working with village people have been laid down. These are the practical rules of effective extension.

- **Begin where the people are:** start from their present knowledge, practices and needs.
- **Work with, not for, the people:** the people must take part in planning and doing.
- **Respect local customs and beliefs:** never ridicule what the village holds dear.
- **Use local leaders:** work through the persons the people already trust.
- **Learn by doing:** let the people try things for themselves.
- **Make haste slowly:** lasting change takes time; do not force the pace.

- **Keep the programme simple and clear:** avoid complicated plans and technical jargon.
- **Meet the whole family:** do not ignore women and youth.
- **Follow up:** one meeting is never enough; keep in touch.

These principles are simply the traits of rural society turned into rules of action. A worker who follows them becomes a trusted friend of the village rather than a visiting official.

Exam focus — Lecture 4

Key points

- Technology succeeds only when it fits the social setting of the village.
- Understanding rural society helps to identify real needs, plan programmes and choose methods.
- It helps to find local leaders, avoid cultural conflict and gain trust.
- It improves communication and reduces resistance.
- Change that grows from within the society lasts longer.
- Traits such as caste, joint family, religion and low literacy directly affect extension methods.

Short-answer questions

1. Why must an extension worker understand rural society?
Because technology succeeds only when it suits the customs, leaders, needs and beliefs of the people; understanding them helps in planning, communicating and gaining trust.

2. How does the joint family affect extension work?
In a joint family the head usually decides, so he must be approached; also, work is divided among members, so women and youth who do specific tasks must also be included.

3. How does low literacy affect the choice of extension method?
Printed material becomes less useful; spoken words, charts, pictures, demonstrations and field visits become more important.

Long-answer questions

1. Explain the rationale of understanding the traits of rural society for effective extension work.
Outline: Introduction; the nine reasons in Section 4.2; Table 4.1 with examples; a short Tamil Nadu illustration; conclusion.

2. Describe how different traits of rural society influence the success or failure of an extension programme.
Outline: Take five traits (caste, joint family, religion, informal control, attachment to tradition); explain each effect; use the worked example; conclusion.

Lecture 5: Social Groups — Meaning, Definition and Classification

5.1 Meaning of social group

Man is a social animal. He lives and works with others. When two or more persons come together, interact with one another, and recognise themselves as belonging together, a **social group** is formed. A crowd waiting at a bus stop is not a group, because its members do not interact or feel that they belong together. A group needs **interaction**, **reciprocal relations** and a sense of **belonging**.

> **Definition — Social Group**
> "A social group is a collection of two or more individuals who interact with one another, share common interests, and recognise themselves as a distinct unit." — **K. Young**
> "A social group is any collection of human beings who are brought into social relationships with one another." — **R. M. MacIver and C. H. Page**

5.2 Essential characteristics of a social group

- **Two or more members** who come together.
- **Interaction** among members, direct or indirect.
- **Reciprocal relations** — each member is affected by the others.
- **Common interests or goals.**
- **Sense of belonging (we-feeling).**
- **Recognised membership** and some norms or rules.
- **Relative permanence** — a group lasts longer than a crowd.

5.3 Classification of social groups

Social groups are classified in many ways. Fig. 3 shows the main divisions as a classification tree; the table below explains each type.

Fig. 3 Classification of Social Groups

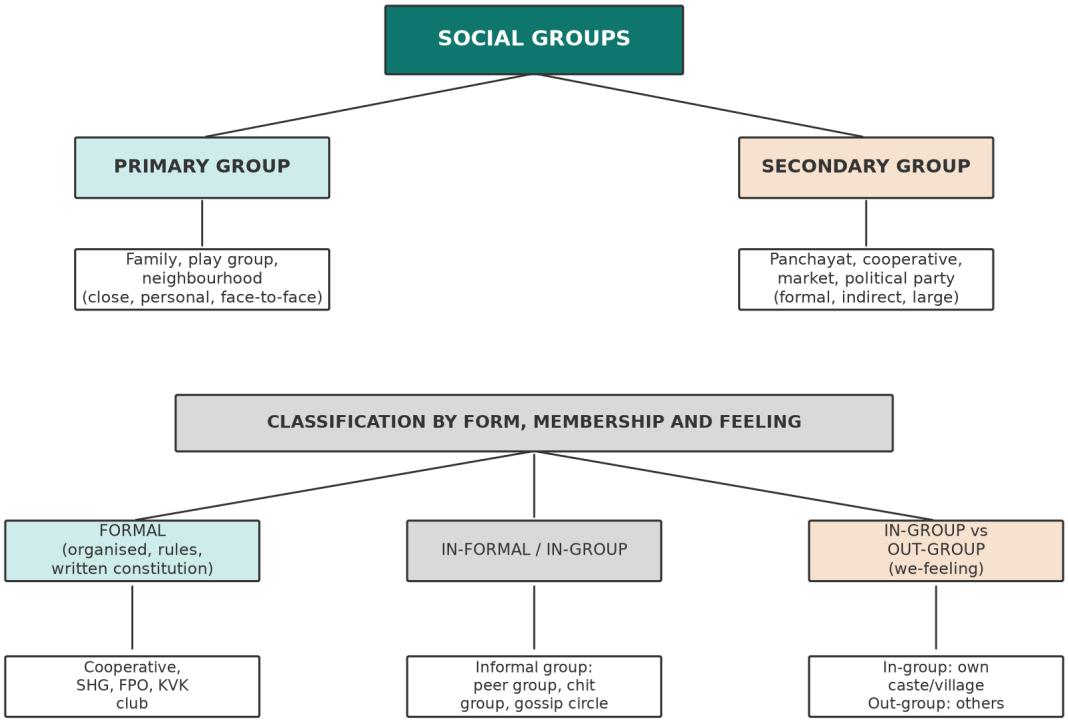


Fig. 3 — Classification of social groups: primary and secondary, formal and informal, in-group and out-group.

Table 5.1 — Classification of social groups

Basis	Type and meaning	Village example
Nature of relations	**Primary** — small, close, face-to-face, personal	Family, play group, neighbourhood
Nature of relations	**Secondary** — large, formal, indirect, impersonal	Panchayat, cooperative, market committee
Organisation	**Formal** — rules, written constitution, officers	Cooperative society, SHG, FPO
Organisation	**Informal** — no written rules, based on friendship	Peer group, chit group, gossip circle
Membership feeling	**In-group** — “we”; **Out-group** — “they”	Own caste/village versus others
Basis of membership	**Voluntary** — joined by choice	Youth club, farmer interest group
Basis of membership	**Involuntary** — joined by birth	Family, caste, clan
Purpose	**Interest group** — common interest	Paddy growers’ group, milk cooperative

5.4 Primary and secondary groups compared

Table 5.2 — Primary versus secondary group

Basis	Primary group	Secondary group
Size	Small	Large
Relations	Close, personal, face-to-face	Formal, indirect, impersonal
Duration	Long-lasting	May be temporary
Emphasis	On the person as a whole	On a particular purpose or role
Control	Informal (custom, affection)	Formal (rules, law)
Example	Family, neighbourhood	Cooperative, market, political party

5.5 Importance of social groups in the village

- They satisfy the need for belonging, security and companionship.
- They are the channels through which new ideas spread in a village.
- They make joint action possible — irrigation repair, cooperative marketing, village festivals.
- They are the training ground for leaders and for democratic habits.
- They carry out social control through approval and disapproval.

5.6 Group dynamics and reference groups

Group dynamics is the study of the forces that act within a group — how members influence one another, how decisions are taken, and how the group changes over time. A group is not merely a collection of people; it has its own atmosphere, its own leaders and its own way of deciding things.

A **reference group** is the group whose standards a person uses to judge himself and to guide his behaviour. A young farmer may take a progressive farmer of a neighbouring village as his reference group and imitate his methods. The reference group need not be one to which the person actually belongs.

- Members of a group tend to conform to the group’s standards.
- A cohesive group (one with strong we-feeling) exerts greater influence on its members.
- Group decisions are usually accepted more readily than decisions imposed from outside.
- A person belongs to several groups at once — family, caste, occupation, village — and these may pull in different directions.

Exam focus — Lecture 5

Key points

- A social group needs interaction, reciprocal relations and a sense of belonging.
- Definitions: K. Young; MacIver and Page.
- Primary group — small, close, personal; secondary group — large, formal, indirect.
- Formal groups have rules; informal groups rest on friendship.
- In-group means “we”; out-group means “they”.
- Groups may be voluntary or involuntary, and may be based on common interest.
- Groups help in spreading ideas, joint action, leadership and social control.

Short-answer questions

1. Define a social group.

A social group is a collection of two or more individuals who interact with one another, share common interests and recognise themselves as a distinct unit (K. Young).

2. Give two differences between primary and secondary groups.

Primary groups are small with close, personal, face-to-face relations; secondary groups are large with formal, indirect relations. Primary groups are long-lasting and controlled informally; secondary groups may be temporary and are controlled by formal rules.

3. What is an in-group?

An in-group is a group with which a person identifies himself, giving rise to a feeling of “we”, as opposed to the out-group, which is regarded as “they”.

Long-answer questions

1. Define a social group and explain its classification.

Outline: Definition and characteristics; the classification tree (Fig. 3); explain primary and secondary, formal and informal, in-group and out-group, voluntary and involuntary; village examples; conclusion.

2. Distinguish between primary and secondary groups with examples.

Outline: Present Table 5.2 on at least six bases; give village examples; explain why both types matter in extension; conclusion.

Lecture 6: Factors Considered in the Formation and Organisation of Groups

6.1 Why groups form

Groups do not form by accident. People come together because of certain needs and circumstances. The factors that lead to the formation of a group, and the factors that decide how it is organised, are studied under two heads: the **factors of formation** and the **factors of organisation**.

6.2 Factors in the formation of groups

- **Common interest or goal:** farmers with the same crop, or women wanting a savings group, come together easily.
- **Proximity (nearness):** people living close to one another interact more and form groups.
- **Similarity:** similarity of age, caste, occupation, language or religion encourages group life.
- **Need satisfaction:** a group forms when it can satisfy a need — credit, labour, marketing, security.
- **Common threat or problem:** a pest outbreak, drought or flood often unites farmers.
- **Leadership:** a capable person attracts others and gives the group shape.
- **Tradition and custom:** festivals, temple committees and customary labour groups are inherited forms.
- **Communication:** easy exchange of information within the locality helps a group to grow.

6.3 Factors considered in the organisation of groups

Once people come together, the group must be organised. The following factors decide how it is organised:

Table 6.1 — Factors in group organisation

Factor	What it decides
Objectives	Why the group exists and what it will do.
Membership	Who may join — by age, caste, gender, occupation or open to all.
Size	Small groups act fast but have fewer resources; large groups have more resources but need rules.
Structure	Officers, committees and their duties.
Norms and rules	What is allowed and what is not; discipline.
Leadership	Who guides the group and how leaders are chosen.
Communication	How members are informed — meetings, notices, phone messages.
Resources	Money, land, labour and materials available to the group.
Record keeping	Registers, accounts and minutes for accountability.

6.4 Stages in the development of a group

1. **Forming:** people come together; the purpose is still unclear.
2. **Storming:** differences of opinion appear; leadership is contested.
3. **Norming:** rules and roles are agreed; trust develops.
4. **Performing:** the group works smoothly towards its goals.
5. **Adjourning or reforming:** the group completes its task or changes its purpose.

6.5 Criteria of a good group and problems in organisation

A well-organised group has certain marks by which it can be recognised. At the same time, groups face common problems that the extension worker must be ready to handle.

Table 6.2 — Marks of a good group and common problems

Marks of a good group	Common problems
A clear, shared objective.	Unclear or shifting goals.
Willing and active members.	Passive membership; a few doing all the work.
Accepted and honest leaders.	Rivalry for leadership; dominance by one family.
Simple rules known to all.	No written rules; disputes over decisions.
Regular meetings and communication.	Irregular meetings; information reaching only some members.
Proper records and accounts.	Careless or dishonest accounts; loss of trust.
Cooperation and discipline.	Factionalism, caste feeling and quarrels.

Exam focus — Lecture 6

Key points

- Groups form because of common interest, proximity, similarity, need satisfaction and common problems.
- Leadership and tradition also bring groups into being.
- Organisation depends on objectives, membership, size, structure, norms, leadership and resources.
- Group development passes through forming, storming, norming, performing and reforming.
- Record keeping gives a group accountability and continuity.

Short-answer questions

1. State any four factors that lead to the formation of groups.
Common interest or goal; proximity; similarity of age, caste or occupation; need satisfaction; common threat or problem; leadership.

2. Name the stages of group development.
Forming, storming, norming, performing and adjourning/reforming.

3. Why is record keeping important in a group?
It maintains accounts and minutes, ensures accountability, helps in obtaining credit, and gives the group continuity when leaders change.

Long-answer questions

1. Explain the factors considered in the formation and organisation of groups.
Outline: Factors of formation (Section 6.2); factors of organisation (Table 6.1); stages of group development; conclusion.

2. How would you organise a farmer interest group in a village?
Outline: Steps — identify common interest, fix objectives, decide membership and size, elect leaders, frame simple rules, arrange meetings, keep records; conclusion.

Lecture 7: Motivation in Group Formation; Role of Social Groups in Agricultural Extension

7.1 Motivation in group formation

Motivation is the inner drive that makes a person act. In group formation, motivation is the reason why people join and stay in a group. Farmers join groups not merely for money but for security, recognition, help in difficulty and the company of others. Motivation may be **intrinsic** (from within — a desire to learn or to improve) or **extrinsic** (from outside — subsidy, prize, credit or award).

> **Definition — Motivation**
> "Motivation is the process of stimulating an individual or a group to action to accomplish a desired goal."

7.2 Types of motivation in groups

- **Economic motivation:** better price, credit, subsidy, higher income.
- **Social motivation:** prestige, status, respect in the village, sense of belonging.
- **Psychological motivation:** security, recognition, self-confidence, achievement.
- **Service motivation:** a wish to help others and the village.

7.3 Role of social groups in agricultural extension

Social groups are the most effective channels of extension. Working with a group is faster, cheaper and more lasting than working with each farmer separately. The main group-based organisations used in extension are commodity groups, farmer interest groups and farmer producer companies.

(a) Commodity groups

A **commodity group** is a group of farmers who grow the same crop or produce the same product — for example, paddy growers, coconut growers, or milk producers. Because all members face the same problems, technical advice fits all of them, and collective marketing becomes possible.

(b) Farmer Interest Groups (FIGs)

A **Farmer Interest Group** is a small, informal group of farmers, usually 15 to 20 in number, formed around a common interest. FIGs are the base unit of many extension and watershed programmes. They meet regularly, learn together and later may become self-help groups or producer groups.

(c) Farmer Producer Companies (FPCs)

A **Farmer Producer Company** is a registered company of farmer-producers, formed under the Companies Act. It is owned and governed by farmers themselves. An FPC buys inputs in bulk, provides machinery, does grading and processing, and

markets produce, so that members get a better price. Tamil Nadu has several FPCs, including in the delta districts, that handle paddy, pulses, banana and milk.

Table 7.1 — Group-based organisations in extension

Type	Size / legal status	Main purpose
Commodity group	Small, informal	Same crop producers share technology and market information.
Farmer Interest Group (FIG)	15–20, informal	Common interest learning; base unit of programmes.
Self-Help Group (SHG)	10–20, informal but registered	Savings, credit, income-generating activity, mainly women.
Farmer Producer Company (FPC)	Large, registered company	Input purchase, processing and collective marketing for profit.
Cooperative society	Large, registered	Credit, marketing, milk collection, input supply.

Worked example — Forming and motivating a FIG for banana growers

A horticultural officer wants to help banana growers in a village near Trichy. The steps and the motivation used at each step are shown below.

Step	Action	Motivation used
1	Meet 20 banana growers and list common problems (bunch weight, price, disease).	Common interest and common problem.
2	Call a meeting; explain how a group can buy suckers in bulk.	Economic — lower cost.
3	Show a group in a nearby village that got a higher price.	Social — prestige and example.
4	Elect a president and secretary; open a register.	Psychological — recognition and ownership.
5	Arrange a KVK training on bunch management.	Intrinsic — desire to learn.
6	Link the group to an FPC for collective marketing.	Economic — better price.

Within one season the FIG of 20 growers was linked to a district FPC and marketed banana collectively.

7.4 Advantages of working through groups in extension

- **Saves time and effort:** one meeting reaches many farmers instead of many separate visits.
- **Lower cost per farmer:** demonstrations and training are shared, so the cost of reaching each farmer falls.
- **Faster spread of ideas:** members learn from one another, not only from the worker.
- **Group pressure helps adoption:** a farmer is more willing to try what his group is trying.

- **Collective strength:** groups can buy inputs, sell produce and obtain credit on better terms.
- **Develops local leadership:** groups are the training ground for future leaders.
- **Continuity:** a group outlives the individual worker and keeps the programme going.

For these reasons, modern extension works through **groups** — commodity groups, farmer interest groups, self-help groups, cooperatives and farmer producer companies — rather than with isolated individuals.

Exam focus — Lecture 7

Key points

- Motivation is the inner drive that makes a person act; it may be intrinsic or extrinsic.
- Types: economic, social, psychological and service motivation.
- Groups are faster, cheaper and more lasting channels of extension than individuals.
- Commodity group: producers of the same product.
- FIG: 15–20 farmers around a common interest; base unit of many programmes.
- FPC: a registered farmer-owned company for inputs, processing and marketing.
- SHGs and cooperatives are the other important group forms.

Short-answer questions

1. Define motivation.

Motivation is the process of stimulating an individual or a group to action in order to accomplish a desired goal.

2. What is a Farmer Interest Group?

A Farmer Interest Group is a small, informal group of about 15–20 farmers formed around a common interest; it meets regularly to learn and act together, and often becomes the base unit of extension programmes.

3. State two advantages of an FPC over individual selling.

Bulk purchase of inputs reduces cost, and collective grading, processing and marketing fetch a better price for members.

Long-answer questions

1. Discuss the role of social groups in agricultural extension with reference to commodity groups, FIGs and FPCs.

Outline: Why groups help extension; explain commodity groups, FIGs and FPCs (Table 7.1); give a Tamil Nadu example; conclusion.

2. Explain motivation in group formation and the types of motivation used in extension work.

Outline: Definition; intrinsic and extrinsic; economic, social, psychological and service motivation; the worked example; conclusion.

Lecture 8: Social Stratification — Meaning, Definition, Functions, Basis and Forms

8.1 Meaning of social stratification

In every society people are placed in higher and lower positions. Some are rich, some poor; some are respected, some are not; some have power, some do not. This arrangement of society into layers or strata is called **social stratification**. The word *stratum* means a layer. Social stratification means the division of society into hierarchical layers, each layer differing from the others in status, power and wealth.

> **Definition — Social Stratification**
> "Social stratification is the arrangement of society into a number of categories or strata which are ranked one above the other in terms of status and prestige." — **Gisbert**
> "Social stratification is the division of society into permanent groups or categories linked with each other by the relationship of superiority and subordination." — **Ogburn and Nimkoff**

8.2 Characteristics of social stratification

- It is **social**, not merely individual — it applies to whole categories of people.
- It is **universal** — found in all societies, though its form differs.
- It is **hierarchical** — layers are ranked high and low.
- It is **permanent and long-lasting**, though not unchangeable.
- Each stratum has a **different lifestyle** and different opportunities.
- It involves **unequal distribution** of wealth, power and prestige.

8.3 Basis of social stratification

- **Economic basis:** ownership of land, income and wealth.
- **Social basis:** caste, family name and kinship.
- **Political basis:** power, authority and position in panchayat or party.
- **Educational basis:** literacy, degrees and professional skill.
- **Religious and ritual basis:** ritual purity and religious standing.

8.4 Forms of social stratification

Sociology recognises four main forms: **caste**, **class**, **estate** and **slavery**. In rural India, caste and class are the two most important forms. Fig. 2 shows a class pyramid and the traditional caste hierarchy side by side.

Fig. 2 Social Stratification: Class Pyramid and Caste Hierarchy

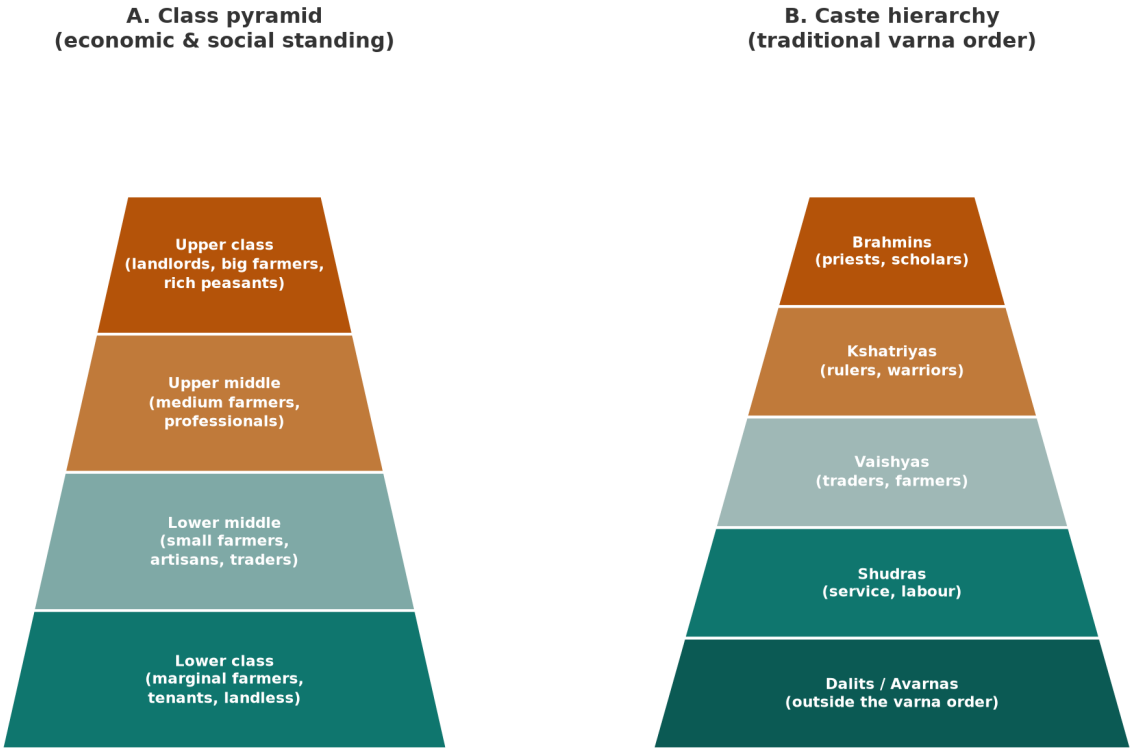


Fig. 2 — Social stratification: (A) the class pyramid by economic and social standing; (B) the traditional caste hierarchy.

8.5 Functions of social stratification

- **Order and stability:** it gives society a recognised structure, reducing confusion.
- **Division of labour:** different strata traditionally took up different occupations.
- **Motivation:** the wish to rise encourages effort, education and skill.
- **Social integration:** shared customs within a stratum create solidarity.
- **Preservation of culture:** each stratum passes on its skills and traditions.

At the same time, stratification has **dysfunctions**: it creates inequality, blocks opportunity, produces conflict and keeps whole groups in poverty. Extension workers must be aware of both sides.

8.6 Social stratification and agricultural extension

The extension worker must know the layers of the village. A recommendation that suits a rich landlord with irrigated land may ruin a small tenant. Advice, credit and machinery must be matched to the stratum to which the farmer belongs. If only the upper stratum is contacted, the weaker sections are left out and the programme becomes unequal.

8.7 Theories of social stratification

Two broad views explain why stratification exists. Both are taught so that the student can weigh them fairly.

Table 8.1 — Two views on social stratification

View	Main argument
Functionalist view (Davis, Moore)	Society needs the most important positions to be filled by the most able persons; unequal rewards attract able people to difficult and important work, so stratification helps society to function.
Conflict view (Marx, Dahrendorf)	Stratification is not necessary but is created by unequal power; the upper groups keep their advantages by controlling wealth, land and opportunity, which produces inequality and conflict.

In practice both views contain truth. Stratification does help to place people in different roles, but it also blocks opportunity and keeps weaker sections down. For the extension worker the practical conclusion is the same: work to reach every stratum fairly.

Exam focus — Lecture 8

Key points

- Social stratification is the division of society into ranked layers.
- Definitions: Gisbert; Ogburn and Nimkoff.
- Characteristics: social, universal, hierarchical, permanent, unequal.
- Basis: economic, social, political, educational and religious.
- Forms: caste, class, estate and slavery; in India caste and class are most important.
- Functions: order, division of labour, motivation, integration, culture. Dysfunctions: inequality and conflict.
- Extension must match advice and resources to each stratum.

Short-answer questions

1. Define social stratification.
Social stratification is the arrangement of society into a number of strata or layers ranked one above the other in terms of status, power and prestige.

2. State any four bases of social stratification.
Economic (land and income); social (caste and family); political (power); educational (literacy and skill); religious (ritual standing).

3. Name the four forms of social stratification.
Caste, class, estate and slavery.

Long-answer questions

1. Explain the meaning, characteristics, basis and forms of social stratification.
Outline: Meaning and definitions; characteristics; basis; forms with the help of Fig. 2; conclusion.

2. Discuss the functions and dysfunctions of social stratification in rural society.
Outline: Five functions; the dysfunctions of inequality and conflict; link to extension work in a Thanjavur village; conclusion.

Lecture 9: Class and Caste Systems — Characteristics, Differences and Implications for Extension

9.1 The class system

A **social class** is a category of people who have a similar economic and social position — similar income, occupation, education and lifestyle. Class is **open**: a person can move up or down by effort, education or fortune. Membership is not fixed by birth.

> **Definition — Social Class**
> "A social class is a category of people having a similar position in the economic and social scale of society." — **Ogburn and Nimkoff**

9.2 The caste system

Caste is a hereditary, endogamous and hierarchical group into which a person is born. In the traditional Indian order there were four *varnas* — Brahmin, Kshatriya, Vaishya and Shudra — with the Dalits or Avarnas placed outside the varna order. Caste is **closed**: a person cannot change his caste. Marriage within the caste (endogamy), hereditary occupation, and rules of purity and pollution are its chief features.

> **Definition — Caste**
> "Caste is a hereditary, endogamous group having a traditional association with an occupation and a particular position in the local hierarchy of castes." — **M. N. Srinivas**

9.3 Characteristics of caste

- **Hereditary:** caste is determined by birth.
- **Endogamous:** marriage takes place within the caste.
- **Hierarchical:** castes are ranked high and low.
- **Restricted occupation:** each caste traditionally followed a fixed occupation.
- **Rules of purity and pollution:** restrictions on touch, food and social contact.
- **Cultural differences:** different customs, dress and dialect.

9.4 Differences between class and caste

Table 9.1 — Class versus caste

Basis	Class	Caste
Membership	Open; can be changed	Closed; fixed by birth
Basis	Income, occupation, education, wealth	Birth and heredity
Mobility	High — a person can rise or fall	Very low — cannot leave one’s caste
Marriage	May be outside the class	Strictly within the caste (endogamy)
Occupational link	Occupation chosen freely	Occupation traditionally fixed
Number of groups	Few broad classes	Many local castes and sub-castes
Feeling	Class consciousness, less rigid	Strong caste consciousness and identity
Ritual element	Absent	Present — purity and pollution

9.5 Caste and class in rural Tamil Nadu

In a typical Tamil Nadu village, both caste and class operate together. A landless Dalit labourer is placed low on both scales, while a Brahmin or a rich non-Brahmin landowner is placed high on both. But the two do not always coincide: a small trader of a high caste may be economically poorer than a prosperous farmer of a lower caste. In practice, class is becoming more important as education, jobs and government schemes open new opportunities, while caste still strongly influences marriage, residence and social relations.

9.6 Understanding social stratification in extension work

- **Reach all sections:** deliberately contact weaker sections, not only the influential families.
- **Suit the message:** a landless labourer needs wage and kitchen-garden advice; a big farmer needs machinery and marketing advice.
- **Group formation across castes:** SHGs and FPCs can unite people of different castes around an economic interest, reducing caste distance.
- **Avoid caste bias:** treat all farmers equally and never let a dominant caste monopolise benefits.
- **Use local leaders carefully:** if leaders come from only one stratum, the programme will be seen as theirs alone.

9.7 Changes in the caste system today

The caste system is not what it was a century ago. Several forces have changed it, though it has not disappeared.

- **Law and the Constitution:** untouchability is abolished and discrimination is prohibited.
- **Education:** schooling and higher education have opened occupations to all castes.
- **Occupational mobility:** a person need no longer follow the caste occupation.

- **Urbanisation and migration:** in towns, caste counts for less in daily work.
- **Reservation and welfare:** special provisions have raised the position of backward and Scheduled Castes.
- **Economic groups:** SHGs, FPCs and cooperatives bring different castes together for a common economic aim.

Yet caste still strongly influences **marriage, residence and social relations**, especially in villages. Hence the extension worker must treat caste as a living social fact — weakening in some respects, persistent in others — and must never let it decide who receives help.

Exam focus — Lecture 9

Key points

- Class is open and based on income, occupation and education; caste is closed and based on birth.
- Definition of caste by M. N. Srinivas; definition of class by Ogburn and Nimkoff.
- Caste features: hereditary, endogamous, hierarchical, occupation-linked, purity rules.
- Class features: mobility, free occupation, class consciousness.
- In rural Tamil Nadu caste and class often overlap but need not coincide.
- Extension must reach all strata, suit the message to each stratum and avoid caste bias.

Short-answer questions

1. Define caste.

Caste is a hereditary, endogamous group having a traditional association with an occupation and a particular position in the local hierarchy of castes (M. N. Srinivas).

2. Give two differences between class and caste.

Class is open and membership can change, while caste is closed and fixed by birth; class allows mobility and marriage outside, while caste has low mobility and endogamy.

3. Why should an extension worker avoid contacting only the upper stratum?

Because the weaker sections would then be left out, the programme would become unequal, and the benefits would be monopolised by a few influential families.

Long-answer questions

1. Distinguish between the class system and the caste system.

Outline: Define class and caste; present Table 9.1 on at least six bases; give village examples; conclusion.

2. Explain social stratification with reference to agricultural extension work.

Outline: Caste and class in a Tamil Nadu village; the five points in Section 9.6; conclusion that extension must be equitable.

Lecture 10: Cultural Concepts in Rural Society — Culture, Customs, Folkways, Mores, Taboos, Rituals, Traditions and Beliefs

10.1 Culture

Culture is the whole way of life of a people — their knowledge, beliefs, art, morals, customs, laws, dress, food, language and skills. It is learned, shared and transmitted from one generation to the next. Material culture includes tools, buildings and dress; non-material culture includes ideas, values and beliefs.

> **Definition — Culture**
> "Culture is that complex whole which includes knowledge, belief, art, morals, law, custom and any other capabilities and habits acquired by man as a member of society." — **E. B. Tylor**

10.2 The chain from folkways to taboos

Culture expresses itself through many graded forms of behaviour. From the mildest to the strongest, the order is: **folkways → mores → customs → taboos**. Folkways are the ordinary ways of doing things; mores are folkways that have become morally important; customs are long-established usages; taboos are the strongest prohibitions.

Table 10.1 — Cultural concepts with meanings and examples

Concept	Meaning	Rural example
Folkways	Ordinary, customary ways of behaving; not morally enforced.	Greeting elders with folded hands; removing footwear before entering a house.
Mores	Folkways that have become morally important; strong social approval or disapproval.	Respecting elders; hospitality to a guest; not eating in the open in front of all.
Customs	Long-established, socially accepted usages followed by a community.	Harvest festival celebrations; customary labour exchange during transplanting.
Taboos	Strong prohibitions whose violation is believed to bring misfortune.	Not sowing on an inauspicious day; avoiding a particular crop on a temple land.
Rituals	Set, repeated symbolic acts performed in a fixed manner.	First-ploughing ceremony (*naal* before sowing); prayer before harvest.
Traditions	Beliefs and practices handed down from generation to generation.	Joint family living; village temple festival.
Beliefs	Ideas accepted as true without proof.	Belief that certain days bring rain; belief in the evil eye.

10.3 Role of cultural concepts in agricultural extension

- **Folkways and mores** decide how a worker should behave in the village; respect for them wins acceptance.
- **Customs** fix the agricultural calendar — sowing, transplanting and harvest follow customary days.
- **Taboos** may block a new practice; they must be understood, not mocked.
- **Rituals** can be used positively — a first-ploughing ceremony can be linked with a demonstration of a new practice.
- **Traditions and beliefs** explain why farmers accept or reject advice; a scientific reason, given patiently, gradually replaces a harmful belief.

Worked example — Handling a taboo in a training programme

A KVK planned a training on **ratoon cropping** for sugarcane growers. Some farmers refused to cut the plant crop early, saying it was inauspicious before the *Aadi* month. The officer's response:

Cultural element	Officer's action	Result
Taboo on early cutting	Did not argue; fixed the demonstration after Aadi.	Farmers attended willingly.
Ritual of first cutting	Invited the temple priest to bless the demonstration plot.	The practice gained acceptance.
Belief in luck	Showed ratoon yield on a respected farmer's field.	Doubt was removed by proof.

By respecting the cultural calendar instead of fighting it, the officer achieved adoption without conflict.

10.4 Material and non-material culture; cultural lag

Culture has two parts. **Material culture** consists of the physical things a society makes and uses — tools, machines, houses, dress and utensils. **Non-material culture** consists of ideas — beliefs, values, customs, language and knowledge. The two parts do not always change at the same speed.

Cultural lag is the delay that occurs when material culture changes faster than non-material culture. A village may adopt a tractor (material change) while old ideas about land, caste or labour (non-material culture) remain unchanged. This gap explains much of the resistance that extension meets: the machine is accepted, but the way of thinking about it lags behind.

- Material culture: tools, seeds, machinery, buildings, dress.
- Non-material culture: beliefs, values, customs, language, religion.
- Cultural lag: the slow change of ideas compared with things.

- Extension must work on **both** — giving the tool and changing the outlook together.

Exam focus — Lecture 10

Key points

- Culture is the whole way of life; definition by E. B. Tylor.
- The chain: folkways → mores → customs → taboos.
- Folkways are ordinary usages; mores are morally important; customs are established; taboos are strong prohibitions.
- Rituals are set symbolic acts; traditions and beliefs are handed down.
- Customs fix the agricultural calendar; taboos may block change; rituals can be used positively.
- Extension must respect culture rather than fight it.

Short-answer questions

1. Define culture.
Culture is that complex whole which includes knowledge, belief, art, morals, law, custom and any other capabilities and habits acquired by man as a member of society (E. B. Tylor).

2. Differentiate between folkways and mores.
Folkways are ordinary customary ways of behaving that are not morally enforced, while mores are folkways that have acquired moral importance and carry strong social approval or disapproval.

3. What is a taboo? Give one rural example.
A taboo is a strong prohibition whose violation is believed to bring misfortune; for example, not sowing on an inauspicious day.

Long-answer questions

1. Explain the cultural concepts of folkways, mores, customs, taboos, rituals, traditions and beliefs with examples.
Outline: Define culture; explain the chain; present Table 10.1; conclusion.

2. Discuss the role of cultural concepts in agricultural extension.
Outline: The five points in Section 10.3; use the worked example on taboo; conclusion that culture must be respected.

Lecture 11: Cultural Traditions and Their Relevance to Extension; Barriers Due to Cultural Norms

11.1 Cultural traditions in rural life

Cultural traditions are the beliefs, customs and practices that a community has followed for generations and passes on to its children. In rural India they cover the whole year: festivals linked to the agricultural calendar, ceremonies at ploughing and harvest, customary sharing of labour, respect for elders, hospitality, and religious observances. These traditions give the village its identity and hold it together.

11.2 Relevance of cultural traditions to extension

- **They set the calendar:** sowing, transplanting and harvest are tied to festivals, so extension programmes must be timed accordingly.
- **They provide ready-made occasions:** a temple festival, a *gram sabha* or a harvest fair is a natural place to meet farmers.
- **They carry values that help:** cooperation, mutual help and respect for elders support group work.
- **They preserve useful indigenous knowledge:** traditional seed storage, weather prediction and organic practices often have scientific value.
- **They give credibility:** a message that fits tradition is trusted more than one that opposes it.

11.3 Barriers due to cultural norms

Not every tradition helps. Some become barriers to progress. The main cultural barriers are listed below.

Table 11.1 — Cultural barriers to extension and ways to overcome them

Barrier	How it blocks change	Way to overcome it
Fatalism (“it is fate”)	Farmers accept poor yields as destined.	Show a neighbour’s success; small, sure gains.
Superstition and taboo	Certain days or practices are avoided.	Respect the calendar; use rituals to bless new practices.
Fear of risk and debt	New inputs are seen as a gamble.	Demonstrations, crop insurance, credit information.
Caste and untouchability	Advice or food from certain persons is refused.	Work through accepted local leaders of each group.
Gender norms	Women are excluded from training though they do much farm work.	Hold separate women’s meetings and women-led demonstrations.
Attachment to old practices	“Our forefathers did it this way.”	Compare old and new side by side; respect the old while showing the new.
Illiteracy	Printed matter is of little use.	Use spoken word, pictures, demonstrations and field days.

11.4 How to use tradition as an ally

The wise extension worker does not attack tradition. He studies it, respects it, and then links the new practice to an old custom. A first-ploughing ceremony becomes a demonstration; a temple festival becomes a campaign site; a customary labour group becomes a farmer interest group. In this way the strength of tradition is used to carry change instead of being wasted in conflict.

11.5 Indigenous technical knowledge and its use

Indigenous technical knowledge (ITK) is the knowledge that farmers have built up over generations by observation and experience. It is stored in proverbs, customs and practice rather than in books. Much of it is sound, and extension workers who respect and use it gain the farmers’ confidence.

Table 11.2 — Examples of indigenous knowledge and their scientific basis

Local practice	Scientific basis
Storing seed with neem leaves	Neem has insect-repellent properties.
Adding farmyard manure and green leaf to the field	Supplies organic matter and nutrients.
Predicting rain from the behaviour of ants and birds	Some signs do accompany changes in humidity and pressure.
Mixed cropping of cereals and pulses	Improves soil fertility and spreads risk.
Using buttermilk or cow dung slurry as a seed treatment	Contains micro-organisms that can protect the seed.

The wise approach is not to reject ITK or to accept it blindly, but to **test it** and blend it with modern science where it proves useful.

Exam focus — Lecture 11

Key points

- Cultural traditions are inherited beliefs, customs and practices.
- They fix the agricultural calendar and provide ready occasions for extension work.
- They carry helpful values and indigenous knowledge and give credibility to a message.
- Barriers: fatalism, superstition, fear of risk, caste, gender norms, attachment to old ways, illiteracy.
- Barriers are overcome by demonstration, respect, inclusion and information.
- Tradition can be used as an ally by linking new practices to old customs.

Short-answer questions

1. State two ways in which cultural traditions help extension work.
They fix the agricultural calendar so that programmes can be timed correctly, and they provide ready occasions such as festivals and fairs at which farmers can be met.

2. What is fatalism and why is it a barrier?
Fatalism is the belief that events are fixed by fate. It is a barrier because farmers then accept poor yields as destined and do not try improved practices.

3. How can gender norms block extension?
Women, who do much of the farm work, may be excluded from training and meetings, so the advice does not reach those who actually carry out the practice.

Long-answer questions

1. Discuss the relevance of cultural traditions to extension and the barriers created by cultural norms.
Outline: Meaning of cultural traditions; their five uses; Table 11.1 of barriers and remedies; conclusion on using tradition as an ally.

2. How would you overcome cultural barriers in introducing a new practice?
Outline: Identify the specific barrier; use demonstration, respect for the calendar, inclusion of women and weaker sections, credit and insurance information; give a village example; conclusion.

Lecture 12: Social Values and Attitude — Meaning, Definition, Types and Role in Agricultural Extension

12.1 Social values

Values are the standards or ideals that a society regards as good, right and desirable. They guide what people consider worth doing and worth having. In rural society, important values include respect for elders, hospitality, honesty, hard work, attachment to land, family honour, religious faith and cooperation.

> **Definition — Value**
> "A value is a conception, explicit or implicit, of what an individual or a group regards as desirable, which influences the selection of ends and means of action." — **Kluckhohn** (in substance)

12.2 Types of social values

- **Personal values:** honesty, hard work, ambition, thrift.
- **Social values:** cooperation, mutual help, hospitality, respect for elders, group loyalty.
- **Economic values:** thrift, ownership of land, saving, hard work for gain.
- **Religious and moral values:** faith, charity, truthfulness, purity.
- **Political and democratic values:** equality, justice, participation, freedom.

12.3 Attitude

An **attitude** is a settled way of thinking, feeling and behaving towards a person, object or idea. It has three parts: what a person *knows* about the object (cognitive), how he *feels* about it (affective), and how he is *ready to act* towards it (behavioural). A favourable attitude towards a practice leads to adoption; an unfavourable attitude leads to rejection.

> **Definition — Attitude**
> "An attitude is a mental and neural state of readiness, organised through experience, exerting a directive or dynamic influence upon the individual's response to all objects and situations with which it is related." — **G. W. Allport**

12.4 Characteristics of attitudes

- Attitudes are **learned**, not inborn.
- They are **relatively stable** but can change with new experience.
- They are **directed towards an object** — a person, practice or idea.
- They may be **favourable or unfavourable**, positive or negative.
- They have **intensity** — some attitudes are strongly held, others weakly.

12.5 Values and attitudes in agricultural extension

- **Values shape goals:** a farmer who values land and family honour will invest in the farm for his children.
- **Attitudes decide adoption:** a favourable attitude towards a new variety must be built before adoption can occur.
- **Values help group work:** the value of cooperation makes SHGs and FPOs possible.
- **Harmful values must be handled gently:** over-attachment to old ways can block progress, but it must be changed by education, not force.
- **Extension changes attitudes first:** the sequence is knowledge → attitude → practice; changing attitude is the hardest but most lasting step.

12.6 Value, attitude and belief; measurement of attitude

Value, attitude and belief are related but not the same. It is useful to keep the three apart.

Table 12.1 — Value, attitude and belief compared

Term	Meaning	Example
Value	A standard of what is good and desirable.	"Hard work is good."
Belief	An idea accepted as true.	"Organic manure improves the soil."
Attitude	A settled readiness to respond towards an object.	"I like using organic manure."

Measuring attitude. The most common tool is the **Likert scale**. The farmer is given statements such as "Organic farming gives better quality produce", and he marks his agreement on a five-point scale — strongly agree, agree, undecided, disagree, strongly disagree. Scores are added to give an attitude score. Extension workers use such scales to find out how farmers feel about a practice before and after a programme.

Exam focus — Lecture 12

Key points

- Values are standards of what is good and desirable.
- Types: personal, social, economic, religious/moral, political/democratic.
- Attitude is a settled readiness to respond; definition by Allport.
- Attitude has three parts: cognitive, affective and behavioural.
- Attitudes are learned, stable, object-directed and may be favourable or unfavourable.
- Extension must build favourable attitudes before expecting adoption.

Short-answer questions

1. Define attitude.

An attitude is a mental and neural state of readiness, organised through experience, exerting a directive or dynamic influence upon the individual's response to all objects and situations with which it is related (G. W. Allport).

2. Name the three components of an attitude.

Cognitive (knowledge), affective (feeling) and behavioural (readiness to act).

3. Give two types of social values.

Cooperation and mutual help; respect for elders; hospitality; group loyalty (any two).

Long-answer questions

1. Explain the meaning, definition and types of values and attitudes.

Outline: Define value and attitude; types of values; components and characteristics of attitude; conclusion.

2. Discuss the role of values and attitudes in agricultural extension.

Outline: The five points in Section 12.5; explain the sequence knowledge → attitude → practice; give a village example; conclusion.

Lecture 13: Social Institutions in Rural Society — Meaning, Definition, Major Institutions and Their Functions

13.1 Meaning of social institution

A **social institution** is an established and organised way in which a society meets a basic need. Family, religion, education, economy and politics are institutions because each is a settled pattern of behaviour that satisfies a fundamental human need — the need to reproduce, to worship, to learn, to earn a living and to govern. Institutions are not buildings; they are *patterns of behaviour* that persist over time.

> **Definition — Social Institution**
> "A social institution is an organised system of social relationships and social processes which meets a basic social need." — **H. E. Barnes**
> "An institution is a set of folkways and mores grouped around an important function of society." — **Sumner**

13.2 Major institutions of rural society

Fig. 4 shows the five major institutions arranged around the hub of rural society.

Fig. 4 Major Social Institutions of Rural Society

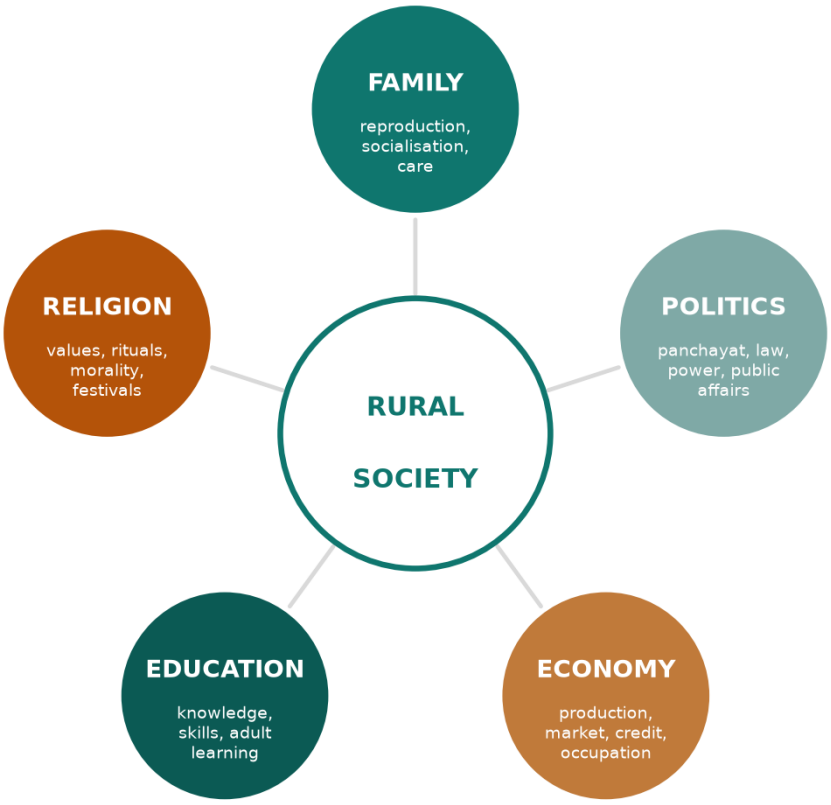


Fig. 4 — Major social institutions of rural society arranged around the hub of the village community.

Table 13.1 — Major social institutions and their functions

Institution	Main functions	Role in agricultural extension
Family	Reproduction, socialisation, economic support, care of the young and old.	Decides what the farm family will adopt; the head and women must be contacted.
Religion	Values, morality, rituals, festivals, comfort in distress.	Fixes the agricultural calendar; festivals are occasions for extension contact.
Education	Knowledge, skills, culture, adult learning.	Literate farmers read leaflets; schools and KVKs support training.
Economy	Production, distribution, consumption, credit and market.	Determines income, credit and market; extension links farmers to markets.
Politics	Power, authority, law, public affairs, welfare.	Panchayat and government schemes carry extension programmes to villages.

13.3 The family in rural society

- **Types:** nuclear (husband, wife, children) and joint (several generations together).
- **Functions:** reproduction, protection, socialisation, economic production, care of dependents.
- **Change:** the joint family is slowly giving way to the nuclear family because of migration and education.

13.4 Religion

- Provides values, moral rules and a sense of purpose.
- Festivals and rituals mark the agricultural seasons.
- Religious leaders often influence village opinion and can help or hinder change.

13.5 Education

- Formal education raises literacy and the ability to read new information.
- Adult and non-formal education is the special field of extension.
- Educated youth often become early adopters and local leaders.

13.6 Economy

- In a village the economy is built mainly on agriculture, livestock and labour.
- Credit, market and price are decided by economic institutions such as cooperatives and banks.
- Extension links the farm economy with modern inputs and markets.

13.7 Politics and panchayat

- The **gram panchayat** and the **gram sabha** are the local political institutions.
- They implement welfare schemes, maintain village assets and settle disputes.
- Extension programmes are often launched through the panchayat, which lends them local authority.

13.8 Role of institutions in agricultural extension

Each institution is a door through which extension can reach the farmer. The family decides, religion sets the calendar, education prepares the mind, the economy provides the means and politics provides the channel. A worker who understands and uses all five institutions reaches the village far more effectively than one who relies on a single method.

13.9 Characteristics of institutions and their dysfunctions

Institutions share certain common features, and like everything in society they can also work badly.

Table 13.2 — Characteristics and dysfunctions of institutions

Characteristics	Dysfunctions (when they work badly)
They satisfy a basic social need.	They may serve only the powerful and neglect the weak.
They have a structure of roles and rules.	Rigid rules may block change and new needs.
They are relatively permanent.	They may resist useful reform for a long time.
They are sanctioned by custom or law.	They may be used to maintain inequality.
They involve shared values.	They may come into conflict with one another.

Exam focus — Lecture 13

Key points

- A social institution is an organised pattern of behaviour meeting a basic need.
- Definitions: Barnes; Sumner.
- The five major institutions: family, religion, education, economy, politics.
- Family socialises and supports; religion sets values and calendar; education gives knowledge; economy provides means; politics provides the channel.
- Each institution is a doorway for extension to reach the farmer.

Short-answer questions

1. Define a social institution.
A social institution is an organised system of social relationships and social processes that meets a basic social need.

2. Name the five major social institutions of rural society.
Family, religion, education, economy and politics.

3. How does the family influence extension work?
The family decides what the household will adopt, and since work is divided among members, the head and the women who do specific farm tasks must both be contacted.

Long-answer questions

1. Explain the meaning of social institution and describe the major institutions of rural society with their functions.
Outline: Definition; Fig. 4; Table 13.1; explain family, religion, education, economy and politics; conclusion.

2. Discuss the role of social institutions in agricultural extension.
Outline: Take each of the five institutions; explain its role in extension; give Tamil Nadu examples (panchayat, temple festival, KVK); conclusion.

Lecture 14: Social Organisations — Meaning, Definition, Types and Role in Rural Development

14.1 Meaning of social organisation

A **social organisation** is a deliberately formed body of people with a definite purpose, a structure of offices and rules to guide its working. Where an institution is a broad pattern of behaviour, an organisation is a concrete body — a cooperative society, a self-help group or a non-governmental organisation. Organisations are created to achieve specific objectives.

> **Definition — Social Organisation**
> "A social organisation is a system of consciously coordinated activities of two or more persons, working towards a common goal through a defined structure." — **in substance, Chester Barnard**

14.2 Types of social organisations

- **Formal organisations:** have written rules, officers and a constitution — cooperatives, FPOs, banks.
- **Informal organisations:** based on friendship and custom — youth groups, chit groups.
- **Voluntary organisations:** formed by citizens to serve society without profit — service clubs, NGOs.
- **Government organisations:** departments and agencies — Agriculture Department, KVKs.

14.3 Major organisations in rural development

Table 14.1 — Types of rural organisations and their role

Organisation	Nature	Role in rural development
Cooperative society	Formal, member-owned, registered	Credit, input supply, marketing, milk collection; members share profit.
Self-Help Group (SHG)	Informal but registered, mostly women	Savings and small loans; income-generating activity; women's empowerment.
Voluntary organisation	Formal or informal, non-profit	Social service, awareness, training, welfare of weaker sections.
Non-Governmental Organisation (NGO)	Formal, non-profit, registered	Development projects, health, education, watershed, disaster relief.
Farmer Producer Company	Formal, farmer-owned company	Collective input purchase, processing and marketing.

14.4 Cooperatives

A **cooperative** is a voluntary association of persons who join together to promote their common economic interest on the principle of “one member, one vote”. Co-operatives work on the values of self-help, self-responsibility, democracy, equality and solidarity. In Tamil Nadu, primary agricultural cooperative credit societies, milk cooperatives and weavers’ cooperatives are common.

14.5 Self-Help Groups (SHGs)

An **SHG** is a small group of about 10 to 20 persons, usually women, who save small amounts regularly and lend to one another. SHGs have transformed rural life by giving women access to credit without collateral, by building confidence and by starting small enterprises such as tailoring, dairy, poultry and food processing. The SHG–bank linkage programme connects groups to banks.

14.6 Voluntary organisations and NGOs

Voluntary organisations are formed by people out of a spirit of service. **NGOs** are registered non-profit bodies that take up development work. They often work in areas where government reach is weak — tribal villages, remote hamlets, disaster relief. They are valuable partners of extension because they are flexible, close to the people and trusted.

Worked example — An SHG as a channel for dairy extension

In a village near Erode, a women’s SHG of 15 members wanted to start a dairy activity. The extension officer used the SHG as a ready-made organisation.

Step	Action through the SHG	Benefit
1	Trained members in clean milk production and animal care.	Better quality milk, higher price.
2	Helped the group obtain a bank loan using SHG records.	Credit without collateral.
3	Linked the group to the village milk cooperative.	Assured daily market for milk.
4	Trained two members as leaders to teach others.	Continuity and local leadership.

The SHG saved the officer time and made the programme self-sustaining.

14.7 Principles of cooperation and problems of cooperatives

Cooperatives rest on well-known principles and face well-known difficulties. Both should be studied together.

Table 14.2 — Principles of cooperation and common problems

Principles of cooperation	Common problems faced
Open and voluntary membership.	Membership limited by caste or wealth in practice.
One member, one vote.	Control captured by a few influential families.
Limited return on capital.	Profit motive of a few members.
Democratic control by members.	Poor attendance at general body meetings.
Distribution of surplus in proportion to patronage.	Delay and leakage in distributing benefits.
Education and training of members.	Weak awareness and book-keeping.

Exam focus — Lecture 14

Key points

- A social organisation is a deliberately formed body with a purpose and structure.
- Types: formal, informal, voluntary and government organisations.
- Cooperatives work on “one member, one vote” and share profit.
- SHGs are small groups, mostly of women, for savings, credit and enterprise.
- Voluntary organisations and NGOs serve society without profit and are trusted partners of extension.
- Organisations are efficient channels for rural development programmes.

Short-answer questions

1. Define a social organisation.

A social organisation is a system of consciously coordinated activities of two or more persons working towards a common goal through a defined structure.

2. State the principle on which a cooperative works.

“One member, one vote”, with the values of self-help, self-responsibility, democracy, equality and solidarity.

3. What is an SHG?

A self-help group is a small group of about 10–20 persons, usually women, who save regularly, lend to one another and take up income-generating activities.

Long-answer questions

1. Explain the meaning, definition and types of social organisations.

Outline: Definition; formal, informal, voluntary and government types; conclusion.

2. Discuss the role of cooperatives, SHGs, voluntary organisations and NGOs in rural development.

Outline: Explain each with Table 14.1; give Tamil Nadu examples; the SHG worked example; conclusion.

Lecture 15: Social Control — Meaning, Definition, Need and Means (Formal and Informal)

15.1 Meaning of social control

No society can survive without order. **Social control** is the sum of the ways in which a society brings its members to conform to its accepted norms and values. It includes everything from a parent's advice to the judgement of a court. In rural society, control is exercised mostly through custom, public opinion and the authority of elders.

> **Definition — Social Control**
> "Social control is the way in which the whole social order is maintained, and the process by which the individual is made to conform to the norms of the group." — **E. A. Ross**
> "Social control is the sum of those methods by which a society tries to influence human behaviour to maintain a given order." — **Gillin and Gillin**

15.2 Need for social control

- To maintain **order and stability** in society.
- To protect the **weak and vulnerable** from exploitation.
- To ensure **conformity** to accepted norms and values.
- To **prevent conflict** and settle disputes peacefully.
- To promote **cooperation** and collective action.
- To pass on the **culture and traditions** of the society.

15.3 Means of social control

Means of social control are of two kinds — **formal** and **informal**. Formal means are organised, written and enforced by the state; informal means are unwritten and enforced by the community.

Table 15.1 — Formal versus informal social control

Basis	Formal social control	Informal social control
Nature	Organised, written, codified	Unwritten, spontaneous
Agency	State — law, police, courts, panchayat by law	Community — family, custom, religion, opinion
Enforcement	By authority and punishment	By approval, disapproval and shame
Examples	Acts, rules, fines, imprisonment	Gossip, ridicule, praise, boycott, excommunication
Strength	Clear and enforceable	Deep and lasting; reaches private life
Role in villages	Increasing, especially for law and order	Traditionally dominant in rural society

15.4 Informal means of social control

- **Custom and tradition:** the strongest control in villages.
- **Public opinion:** what people think and say about a person’s conduct.
- **Gossip and ridicule:** the fear of being talked about or laughed at.
- **Praise and prestige:** rewards of good conduct — a title, a seat of honour.
- **Religion and morality:** fear of divine displeasure.
- **Family and kinship:** advice, affection and the withdrawal of affection.
- **Folkways and mores:** everyday expectations of behaviour.

15.5 Formal means of social control

- **Law:** written rules of the state with fixed penalties.
- **Police and courts:** agencies that enforce the law.
- **Panchayat and local bodies:** administer local rules and welfare.
- **Education:** teaches conformity to accepted norms.
- **Government departments:** enforce rules such as those on land use, water and markets.

15.6 Social control and agricultural extension

Social control affects extension in two ways. Where control is **positive**, the community rewards those who adopt good practices and the programme spreads quickly. Where control is **negative**, a farmer who tries a new practice may be ridiculed or boycotted, and adoption is delayed. The extension worker uses positive social control by publicising the success of early adopters and arranging public recognition for them.

15.7 Agencies of social control

Social control is exercised by many agencies. Some are informal, working through the community; others are formal, working through the state.

Table 15.2 — Agencies of social control

Agency	Type	How it controls
Family	Informal	Advice, affection, discipline and example.
Caste and neighbourhood	Informal	Approval, disapproval, gossip and boycott.
Religion	Informal	Moral teaching and fear of divine displeasure.
Public opinion	Informal	Praise and blame; the wish to be well thought of.
Panchayat	Formal and informal	Settles disputes and enforces local decisions.
Law, police and courts	Formal	Written law with fixed penalties.
Education	Formal	Teaches accepted norms and values.

In a village all these agencies work together. A farmer obeys a rule not because of the law alone, but because his family, his caste group and public opinion all expect him to obey it. This is why informal control is so powerful in rural society.

Exam focus — Lecture 15

Key points

- Social control is the sum of ways by which society makes members conform to its norms.
- Definitions: E. A. Ross; Gillin and Gillin.
- Need: order, protection, conformity, prevention of conflict, cooperation, transmission of culture.
- Formal control: law, police, courts, panchayat — organised and written.
- Informal control: custom, opinion, gossip, ridicule, praise, religion — unwritten.
- In villages informal control is traditionally dominant.
- Extension uses positive social control by rewarding early adopters.

Short-answer questions

1. Define social control.
Social control is the sum of those methods by which a society tries to influence human behaviour in order to maintain a given social order.

2. State any four informal means of social control.
Custom, public opinion, gossip and ridicule, praise and prestige, religion and morality, family advice.

3. Give two examples of formal social control.
Law enforced by police and courts; rules enforced by the panchayat and government departments.

Long-answer questions

1. Explain the meaning, need and means of social control.
Outline: Definition; need; formal and informal means with Table 15.1; conclusion.

2. How does social control influence agricultural extension work?
Outline: Positive and negative control; how ridicule or praise affects adoption; how extension uses positive control; conclusion.

Lecture 16: Social Change — Meaning, Definition, Nature and Dimensions

16.1 Meaning of social change

No society stands still. Its customs, beliefs, technology and relationships keep changing over time. This alteration in the social structure and in the patterns of social relationships is called **social change**. Social change includes changes in population, family, caste, education, technology, economy and values.

> **Definition — Social Change**
> "Social change means any modification in the social organisation of a society, whether in its structure or in its functioning." — **Morris Ginsberg**
> "Social change is a term used to describe variations in, or modifications of, any aspect of social processes, social patterns, social interaction or social organisation." — **H. T. Mazumdar**

16.2 Nature of social change

- **Universal:** every society changes, though at different speeds.
- **Continuous:** change never stops; it goes on from generation to generation.
- **Gradual or sudden:** usually slow, but sometimes rapid through revolution or disaster.
- **Both planned and unplanned:** some change is planned by government; much is unplanned.
- **Interrelated:** a change in one part of society brings changes in others.
- **Not always progress:** change may be for the better or for the worse.
- **Affected by time and place:** the same change may occur differently in different villages.

16.3 Dimensions of social change

Table 16.1 — Dimensions of social change in rural society

Dimension	Examples in a Tamil Nadu village
Technological	Shift from wooden plough to tractor; use of drip irrigation; mobile phones for price information.
Economic	From subsistence farming to market farming; from barter to cash and bank credit.
Social	Break-up of the joint family; rise of women's SHGs; decline of untouchability by law.
Cultural	Change in dress, food and entertainment; spread of education and modern ideas.
Political	Panchayati Raj; reserved seats for women; adult franchise and voting behaviour.
Demographic	Migration to towns; smaller families; changing sex ratio.

16.4 Factors that bring about social change

The main factors are technology, culture, economy, politics and environment. These are studied in detail in the next lecture. Here it is enough to note that change rarely comes from a single factor; usually several factors act together.

16.5 Social change and agricultural extension

Agricultural extension is a deliberate attempt to bring about planned social change. When the extension worker introduces a new variety, a new machine or a new method, he is changing not only the farmer’s field but also his habits, his family life and, over time, the whole village. Extension is thus a planned agent of social change.

16.6 Social evolution, progress and development

Three terms are often confused. It is useful to keep them apart.

Table 16.2 — Social evolution, progress and development

Term	Meaning
Social evolution	Slow, gradual, natural change in society over long periods; it has no fixed direction.
Social progress	Change that is judged to be an improvement, towards a better condition.
Social development	Planned, deliberate change brought about by programmes and effort.

All change is not progress. A rise in indebtedness or a break-up of village cooperation is change, but not progress. Extension aims at change that is also progress — that improves the farmer’s condition.

Exam focus — Lecture 16

Key points

- Social change is any modification in the social organisation of society.
- Definitions: Morris Ginsberg; H. T. Mazumdar.
- Nature: universal, continuous, gradual or sudden, planned or unplanned, interrelated, not always progress.
- Dimensions: technological, economic, social, cultural, political and demographic.
- Change rarely comes from a single factor.
- Extension is a planned agent of social change.

Short-answer questions

1. Define social change.
Social change means any modification in the social organisation of a society, whether in its structure or in its functioning (Morris Ginsberg).

2. State any four characteristics of social change.
It is universal, continuous, gradual or sudden, both planned and unplanned, interrelated, and not always progress.

3. Give two dimensions of social change with examples.
Technological — shift from wooden plough to tractor; social — rise of women’s SHGs.

Long-answer questions

1. Explain the meaning, nature and dimensions of social change.
Outline: Definition; nature; Table 16.1 of dimensions with village examples; conclusion.

2. “Extension is a planned agent of social change.” Discuss.
Outline: Meaning of planned change; how extension changes knowledge, attitude, skill and behaviour; example of a village transformed by a new practice; conclusion.

Lecture 17: Factors Influencing Social Change; Agricultural Extension as a Change Agent

17.1 Factors influencing social change

Social change is brought about by many forces. For study they are grouped under five heads: technological, cultural, economic, political and environmental. Fig. 5 shows these five groups of factors feeding into social change.

Fig. 5 Factors Influencing Social Change

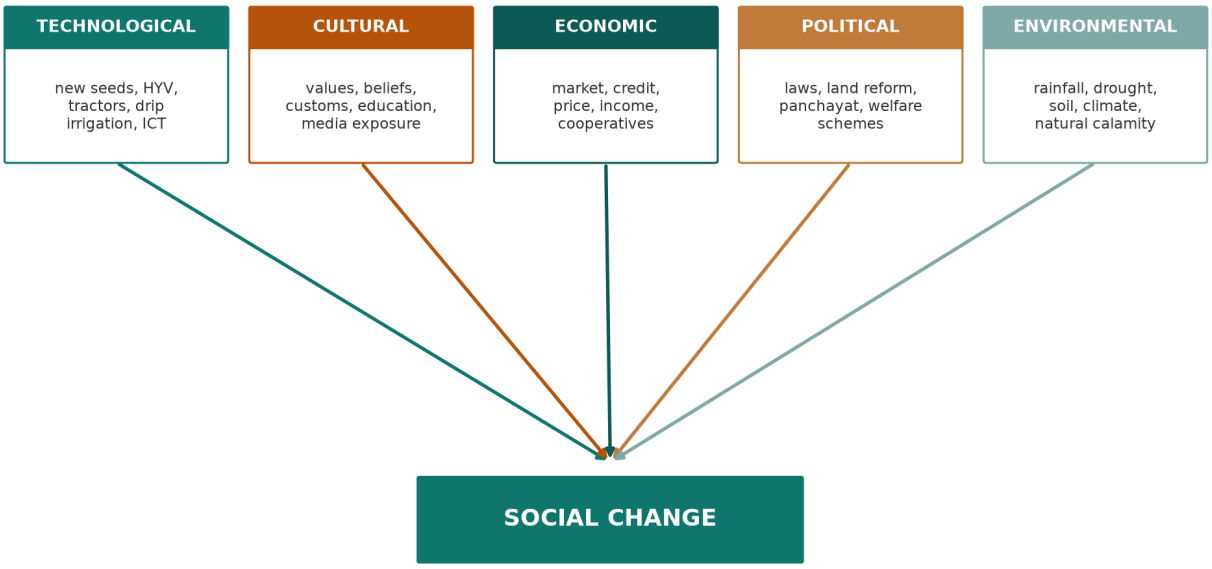


Fig. 5 — Five groups of factors influencing social change.

Table 17.1 — Factors of social change

Factor group	How it brings change	Village example
Technological	New tools, seeds, machines and information change work and output.	Tractor, drip irrigation, mobile price information.
Cultural	Values, beliefs, education and media change outlook.	Spread of education reduces superstition; TV changes dress and diet.
Economic	Market, credit, price and income change livelihood.	Bank credit and cooperative marketing shift farming to cash crops.
Political	Laws, land reform and welfare schemes change structure.	Land reform, panchayat, MGNREGA, women's reservation.
Environmental	Rainfall, drought, flood and climate force adaptation.	Drought pushes farmers to millets and micro-irrigation.

17.2 Technological factors

Technology is often the strongest single force for change. The green revolution, based on high-yielding varieties, fertilisers and irrigation, transformed delta agriculture. More recently, information and communication technology — mobile phones,

radio, television and the internet — has changed how farmers learn prices, weather and methods.

17.3 Cultural factors

Values and beliefs can speed up or slow down change. Education, contact with towns and exposure to media weaken old superstitions and widen the outlook. Yet cultural factors also resist change, so the two work against each other.

17.4 Economic factors

Market demand, price, credit and income decide what a farmer will grow and how he will invest. When a crop gives a good price, the whole village shifts to it. Access to credit allows investment in machinery and inputs.

17.5 Political factors

Laws and government policy reshape rural society. Land reform reduced the power of big landlords; panchayati raj brought local self-government; reservation and welfare schemes changed the position of weaker sections and women.

17.6 Environmental factors

Nature itself forces change. A severe drought, a flood or a change in rainfall pattern compels farmers to change crops, adopt water-saving methods or migrate. Climate change is now a major driver of rural change.

17.7 Agricultural extension as a change agent

Extension is a **planned** and **deliberate** agent of social change. It does not wait for change to happen; it works to bring about desirable change. The extension worker acts as a change agent in the following ways:

- **Creates awareness:** introduces new ideas to farmers.
- **Builds favourable attitudes:** removes fear and doubt through demonstration.
- **Teaches skills:** trains farmers to carry out new practices correctly.
- **Links farmers to resources:** credit, inputs, market and schemes.
- **Identifies and trains leaders:** so that change continues after the worker leaves.
- **Evaluates and re-teaches:** keeps the process of change going.

Worked example — An adoption / diffusion calculation

An extension officer introduced a new short-duration paddy variety in a village of **400 farmers**. The spread of adoption over five seasons was recorded. The percentage of adoption and the cumulative adoption are calculated below.

Season	New adopters	Cumulative adopters	Cumulative % of 400	Stage of diffusion
1	8	8	2%	Innovators
2	32	40	10%	Early adopters
3	120	160	40%	Early majority
4	140	300	75%	Late majority
5	60	360	90%	Laggards

Calculation: cumulative % = (cumulative adopters ÷ 400) × 100. Example for season 3: (160 ÷ 400) × 100 = 40%. The **rate of adoption** is fastest in seasons 3 and 4 (the majority stages), giving the familiar S-shaped diffusion curve. Adoption reached 90% by the fifth season; the remaining 10% are the laggards.

17.8 Adopter categories in the diffusion of innovations

Not all farmers adopt a new practice at the same time. Rogers classified them into five categories according to how early they adopt. The categories follow the adoption curve used in the worked example above.

Table 17.2 — Adopter categories

Category	Approx. share	Characteristics
Innovators	2.5%	Venturesome; willing to take risks; often educated and well-off.
Early adopters	13.5%	Respected, progressive; the opinion leaders whom others follow.
Early majority	34%	Deliberate; adopt after seeing the early adopters succeed.
Late majority	34%	Sceptical; adopt under group pressure and after proof.
Laggards	16%	Traditional; adopt last or never; suspicious of change.

The practical lesson for extension is to **identify the early adopters and opinion leaders** first, because once they adopt, the majority will follow.

Exam focus — Lecture 17

Key points

- Five groups of factors: technological, cultural, economic, political and environmental.
- Technology is often the strongest single force.
- Cultural factors may speed up or slow down change.
- Market, credit and price shape economic change; laws and policy shape political change.
- Drought, flood and climate force environmental change.
- Extension is a planned change agent that creates awareness, builds attitude, teaches skill and links resources.
- Adoption follows the S-shaped diffusion curve from innovators to laggards.

Short-answer questions

1. Name the five groups of factors influencing social change.
Technological, cultural, economic, political and environmental factors.

2. How does technology bring social change in a village?
New tools, seeds, machines and information change the way work is done and the output obtained, and this in turn changes income, habits and social relations.

3. Give one example each of political and environmental factors of change.
Political — land reform and panchayati raj; environmental — drought forcing a shift to millets and micro-irrigation.

Long-answer questions

1. Explain the factors influencing social change with examples.
Outline: Five factor groups with Fig. 5 and Table 17.1; explain each group; conclusion.

2. Discuss the role of agricultural extension as an agent of social change.
Outline: Planned versus unplanned change; the six functions of the change agent; the adoption/diffusion calculation; conclusion.

Lecture 18: Leadership — Meaning, Definition, Classification and Roles of a Leader

18.1 Meaning of leadership

Leadership is the ability to influence others to work willingly towards a common goal. A leader is a person who guides, inspires and organises a group. Leadership is not the same as holding an office; it is the ability to get things done through people by winning their confidence.

> **Definition — Leadership**
> "Leadership is the process of influencing the activities of an individual or a group towards goal achievement in a given situation." — **Paul Hersey and Kenneth Blanchard**
> "A leader is a person who exerts influence over others in a group in the direction of goal achievement." — **in substance, Stogdill**

18.2 Characteristics of a good leader

- **Initiative:** the ability to start action and take the first step.
- **Vision:** a clear idea of what the group should achieve.
- **Communication skill:** the ability to explain ideas clearly.
- **Sympathy and understanding:** interest in the welfare of members.
- **Courage and confidence:** willingness to take responsibility and risk.
- **Honesty and integrity:** trustworthiness in money and conduct.
- **Decision-making ability:** the power to decide promptly.
- **Sociability:** friendly relations with all sections of the village.

18.3 Classification of leaders

Leaders are classified in several ways. The most useful classification for extension is by **how they came to lead** — formal, informal, professional and lay leaders.

Table 18.1 — Types of leaders

Type	How the leader arises	Extension example
Formal leader	Holds an office by election or appointment.	Panchayat president, cooperative chairman.
Informal leader	Rises by influence, respect and personality; no office.	Respected elder, progressive farmer.
Professional leader	A trained, paid official of an organisation.	Village Extension Worker, Agricultural Officer, KVK scientist.
Lay leader	An ordinary farmer who leads without pay or office.	A farmer who teaches neighbours a new practice.
Authoritarian	Leads by command; decisions are his alone.	A strict landlord in a traditional village.
Democratic	Leads by consulting members and sharing decisions.	A cooperative chairman who calls regular meetings.
Laissez-faire	Leaves the group to itself; minimum guidance.	An inactive youth club president.

18.4 Roles and functions of a leader

- **Representing the group:** speaking for the group to officials and outsiders.
- **Planning and organising:** fixing goals, dates and duties.
- **Guiding and teaching:** explaining new ideas to members.
- **Maintaining discipline:** keeping members within agreed rules.
- **Settling disputes:** resolving quarrels within the group.
- **Providing a link:** connecting the group with extension agencies, banks and markets.
- **Setting an example:** being the first to try and prove a new practice.
- **Building morale:** encouraging members in difficulty.

18.5 Importance of leadership in agricultural extension

Extension cannot reach every farmer directly. Local leaders multiply the worker’s effort. They carry the message in the village’s own language, they set an example by adopting first, and they give the programme local trust and continuity. Identifying and using leaders well is one of the most important skills of an extension worker.

18.6 Leadership styles

Leaders differ in the way they use their authority. Three styles are commonly described.

Table 18.2 — Leadership styles

Style	How the leader acts	Effect on the group
Authoritarian	Gives orders; takes all decisions alone.	Quick action, but members lose initiative and may resent it.
Democratic	Consults members; decisions are shared.	Slower, but members cooperate willingly and grow.
Laissez-faire	Leaves the group free; gives little guidance.	Members may drift; useful only with a mature, capable group.

For extension work the **democratic** style is generally the most suitable, because extension aims at building self-reliance and willing cooperation among farmers rather than obedience.

Exam focus — Lecture 18

Key points

- Leadership is the ability to influence others towards a common goal.
- Definition: Hersey and Blanchard.
- Qualities: initiative, vision, communication, sympathy, courage, honesty, decision-making, sociability.
- Classification: formal, informal, professional, lay; authoritarian, democratic, laissez-faire.
- Roles: represent, plan, guide, maintain discipline, settle disputes, link, set example, build morale.
- Leaders multiply the reach of extension work.

Short-answer questions

1. Define leadership.
Leadership is the process of influencing the activities of an individual or a group towards goal achievement in a given situation.

2. Give two qualities of a good leader.
Initiative and vision; communication skill and sympathy; honesty and courage (any two).

3. Distinguish between a professional leader and a lay leader.
A professional leader is a trained, paid official of an organisation (for example a Village Extension Worker), while a lay leader is an ordinary unpaid farmer who leads his fellow farmers without holding office.

Long-answer questions

1. Explain the meaning, definition and classification of leadership.
Outline: Definition; qualities; Table 18.1 of types; conclusion.

2. Describe the roles of a leader in agricultural extension.
Outline: The eight roles in Section 18.4; explain how each helps extension; conclusion on the value of local leaders.

Lecture 19: Methods of Selection of Professional and Lay Leaders

19.1 Why leaders must be selected carefully

The success of an extension programme often depends on choosing the right leaders. A leader who is respected, honest and progressive can carry a programme through the whole village. A leader who is self-seeking or backward can spoil it. Hence the extension worker must use a systematic method to select both professional and lay leaders.

19.2 Professional versus lay leaders

Table 19.1 — Professional leaders versus lay leaders

Basis	Professional leader	Lay leader
Who he is	A trained, paid official of an organisation	An ordinary farmer or villager
Selection	By recruitment and appointment	By the community, or by sociometric method
Training	Formal professional training	Short, practical training by extension
Authority	Derived from office	Derived from respect and influence
Payment	Paid salary	Usually unpaid, sometimes small honorarium
Contact with farmers	Limited by area and duties	Constant, daily, informal
Example	VEW, Agricultural Officer, KVK scientist	Progressive farmer, respected elder, SHG leader

19.3 Methods of selection of leaders

Table 19.2 — Methods of selecting leaders

Method	How it works	Merit / demerit
Election	Members vote and choose the leader.	Democratic and accepted; may favour the dominant group.
Nomination / appointment	An official or body appoints the leader.	Quick; may not be accepted by the people.
Self-selection	A person volunteers to lead.	Shows initiative; may be self-seeking.
Sociometric method	Members name whom they trust; choices are counted.	Reveals the real, accepted leader; needs care and time.
Key-informant method	Trusted villagers are asked who the leaders are.	Quick; based on the informant's own opinion.
Observation	The worker watches who is consulted and who leads action.	Practical; slow and subjective.
Position / office	Those holding office are treated as leaders.	Easy; office may not mean real influence.

19.4 The sociometric method

The **sociometric method**, developed by J. L. Moreno, is the most scientific way of identifying real leaders. Members of a group are asked a clear question such as: "Whom would you consult for advice on farming?" or "Whom would you choose as your group leader?" Each person names a few others. The choices received by each person are counted. The persons receiving the most choices are the **sociometric leaders** or **stars**. The pattern of choices and rejections is drawn as a **sociogram**.

Steps in the sociometric method

1. Define the group clearly (for example, 30 paddy growers of one hamlet).
2. Ask one specific criterion question — for example, "Whom do you consult about paddy cultivation?"
3. Allow each member to name two or three persons, in order of preference.
4. Collect the responses in a table and count the choices received by each person.
5. Identify the stars (most chosen), the isolates (not chosen by anyone) and the mutual pairs.
6. Draw the sociogram and verify the leaders by observation.

Worked example — A sociometric test to identify a village leader

Question put to each of 10 paddy growers: "Whom do you consult first for advice on paddy cultivation?" Each was allowed to name two persons. The choices received are tabulated below.

Farmer	1st choice given	2nd choice given
A	R	S
B	R	T
C	R	S
D	S	R
E	T	R
F	R	S
G	S	R
H	R	T
I	S	R
J	R	S

Counting the choices received:

Person	1st-choice votes	2nd-choice votes	Total choices
R	6 (A, B, C, F, H, J)	4 (D, E, G, I)	**10**
S	3 (D, G, I)	4 (A, C, F, J)	**7**
T	1 (E)	2 (B, H)	**3**

Reading: Farmer **R** received the highest number of choices (10 out of a possible 20) and is therefore the sociometric leader — the person the growers actually consult. Farmer **S** is a second, secondary leader. Farmer **T** is chosen by very few. Farmers A, B, C, D, E, F, G, H, I and J received no choices and are followers in this matter. **R** should be used by the extension worker as a lay leader and resource person for paddy demonstrations.

Worked example — Sociogram reading exercise

A sociogram of a 9-member youth club shows three patterns: **(i)** a star receiving many arrows; **(ii)** a mutual pair with arrows pointing both ways; **(iii)** an isolate with no arrows. Read the sociogram as follows:

Pattern seen	Meaning	Extension action
Many arrows point to one person (star)	This is the accepted, influential leader.	Train and use him as a lay leader.
Two-way arrows between two members (mutual pair)	Close friendship; they act together.	Use the pair to start a small group activity.
A person with no arrows (isolate)	Socially isolated; may be neglected.	Bring him into the group; find out why he is left out.
A person who gives but receives no choices	Wishes to lead but is not accepted.	Give him a useful task, not leadership.

Thus a sociogram is not only a picture of who leads; it is also a map of friendships, isolation and group structure, which helps the extension worker to plan group activities.

19.5 Precautions in selecting leaders

- Do not select only from the dominant caste or the rich.
- Include women leaders, especially for activities that women carry out.
- Verify the sociometric result by observation and by talking to farmers.
- Avoid leaders who seek personal gain or are involved in disputes.
- Keep the sociometric information confidential.

19.6 A checklist for judging a prospective leader

Before finally accepting a person as a lay leader, the extension worker may check the following points. A simple tick against each point gives a quick judgement.

- Is he respected and trusted by most of the village, not only one group?
- Is he willing to learn new practices and to be trained?
- Has he a good record of honesty in money and dealings?
- Does he get along with people of different castes and sections?
- Is he reasonably free from factional disputes?
- Does he have the time and interest to help others?
- Does he set an example by using improved practices himself?
- Is he acceptable to women and to younger farmers?

A person who satisfies most of these points will make a reliable local leader; one who satisfies only a few should be used for a limited task, not for leadership of the whole village.

Exam focus — Lecture 19

Key points

- Leaders must be selected carefully; the right leader carries the whole programme.
- Professional leaders are trained officials; lay leaders are unpaid farmers.
- Methods: election, nomination, self-selection, sociometric, key-informant, observation, position.
- The sociometric method (Moreno) counts the choices received and identifies the real leader.
- A sociogram shows stars, mutual pairs and isolates.
- Precautions: avoid caste and wealth bias; include women; verify by observation.

Short-answer questions

1. Name any four methods of selecting leaders.
Election, nomination/appointment, self-selection, sociometric method, key-informant method, observation and position/office.

2. What is the sociometric method?
It is a method, developed by J. L. Moreno, in which group members are asked whom they trust or consult, and the choices received by each person are counted to identify the real leader.

3. What is a sociogram?
A sociogram is a diagram showing the pattern of choices and rejections within a group, revealing stars, mutual pairs and isolates.

Long-answer questions

1. Explain the methods of selection of leaders, giving a worked sociometric test.
Outline: Table 19.2 of methods; explain the sociometric method step by step; present the worked test and identify the leader; conclusion.

2. Distinguish between professional and lay leaders and explain how a lay leader is identified.
Outline: Table 19.1; explain the sociometric and key-informant methods; the sociogram reading exercise; conclusion.

Lecture 20: Training of Leaders; Advantages and Limitations of Using Local Leaders

20.1 Meaning and need of leadership training

Training of leaders means the planned education of selected local leaders so that they can guide their fellow farmers effectively. A farmer may be respected and influential, but he still needs to learn new technology and methods of teaching. Training turns a popular leader into an *effective* leader.

> **Definition — Training**
> "Training is the process of increasing the knowledge and skill of a person for a definite purpose."

20.2 Objectives of training local leaders

- To teach new agricultural technology and practices.
- To develop the skills of teaching and communicating with fellow farmers.
- To build confidence, initiative and the ability to organise.
- To create a body of local leaders who can continue the work independently.
- To reduce the burden on the extension worker and multiply his reach.

20.3 Methods of training leaders

Table 20.1 — Methods of training local leaders

Method	How it is used
Short courses	A few days of concentrated training at a KVK or training centre.
Method demonstration	Teaching a skill by actually doing it in front of the leader.
Result demonstration	Showing the result of a practice on a field over a season.
Field visits and tours	Taking leaders to see successful farms in other villages.
Discussion meetings	Group discussion to develop judgement and expression.
Participation in campaigns	Learning by helping to organise a village campaign.
Conferences and camps	Bringing leaders together to exchange experience.

20.4 Advantages of using local leaders

Table 20.2 — Advantages and limitations of local leaders

Advantages	Limitations
They speak the village's own language and idiom.	They may lack technical knowledge and training.
They are trusted and respected by the people.	They may favour their own caste, kin or group.
They can reach many farmers quickly and cheaply.	They may seek personal gain or prestige.
They set an example by adopting first.	They may not be accepted by all sections.
They give the programme continuity after the worker leaves.	They may drop out if not supported or encouraged.
They know local problems and customs intimately.	Their influence may decline with a change of village politics.

20.5 Guiding principles in using local leaders

- Select leaders who are trusted by all sections, not just one group.
- Give them proper training and keep in regular contact.
- Recognise their service publicly — a certificate, a mention at a function, a small honour.
- Do not overload them; give clear, limited responsibilities.
- Do not allow them to become a channel for personal gain.
- Support them with technical help whenever they ask.

Worked example — Designing a leadership training programme for a village

A block extension team plans to train **12 local leaders** (8 men and 4 women, from different hamlets) for a village in the Cauvery delta. The training is designed as follows:

Day	Topic	Method	Expected outcome
1	Role of a lay leader; qualities of leadership	Discussion	Leaders understand their role.
2	Improved paddy practices (SRI, pest management)	Method demonstration	Leaders learn the skill.
3	How to teach fellow farmers	Role play and practice	Leaders gain teaching skill.
4	Visit to a successful farmer's field	Field tour	Leaders see proof of results.
5	Planning a village demonstration; feedback	Group work	Action plan prepared.

Follow-up: each leader is given the task of teaching five farmers in his or her hamlet, with the extension worker visiting once a week. In this way 12 leaders reach 60 farmers, far more than the worker could reach alone.

20.6 Steps in organising a leadership training programme

1. **Identify the leaders:** select the persons to be trained, using the sociometric method and observation.

2. **Find the training needs:** decide what knowledge and skills the leaders actually lack.
3. **Fix the objectives:** state what the leaders should be able to do after training.
4. **Select the content and methods:** choose the topics and the methods — demonstrations, tours, discussions.
5. **Arrange the training:** fix the place, dates and resource persons, keeping the farmers' calendar in mind.
6. **Conduct the training:** keep it practical, with plenty of learning by doing.
7. **Evaluate:** check whether the leaders have gained the intended knowledge and skill.
8. **Follow up:** give each leader a task, visit regularly and give further help as needed.

The last step is the most important. Training that is not followed up is soon forgotten, whereas a leader who is helped and encouraged becomes a permanent asset to extension.

Exam focus — Lecture 20

Key points

- Training of leaders is planned education to make local leaders effective.
- Objectives: teach technology, teaching skill, confidence and organising ability.
- Methods: short courses, demonstrations, field tours, discussions, campaigns, conferences.
- Advantages: trust, language, reach, example, continuity, local knowledge.
- Limitations: lack of training, caste or kin bias, personal gain, limited acceptance.
- Leaders must be trained, supported and publicly recognised.

Short-answer questions

1. Define training.
Training is the process of increasing the knowledge and skill of a person for a definite purpose.

2. Name any four methods of training local leaders.
Short courses, method demonstrations, result demonstrations, field visits and tours, discussion meetings, participation in campaigns (any four).

3. State two advantages of using local leaders.
They are trusted and speak the village’s own language, and they can reach many farmers quickly and cheaply.

Long-answer questions

1. Explain the meaning, objectives and methods of training local leaders.
Outline: Definition and need; objectives; Table 20.1 of methods; the worked training programme; conclusion.

2. Discuss the advantages and limitations of using local leaders in agricultural extension.
Outline: Table 20.2; the guiding principles in Section 20.5; conclusion.

Lecture 21: Psychology and Educational Psychology — Meaning, Definition, Scope and Importance

21.1 Meaning of psychology

The word **psychology** comes from the Greek *psyche* (soul or mind) and *logos* (study). In modern usage psychology is the science of behaviour and mental processes. It studies how people think, feel, learn, remember and act.

> **Definition — Psychology**
> "Psychology is the science of the behaviour of organisms." — **Woodworth**
> "Psychology is the positive science of the conduct of living creatures." — **William McDougall**

21.2 Meaning of educational psychology

Educational psychology is the branch of psychology that studies learning and teaching. It applies the principles of psychology to education — how a learner learns, what motivates him, how he differs from others, and how teaching can be made effective.

> **Definition — Educational Psychology**
> "Educational psychology is the study of the behaviour of the learner in relation to the educative process." — **in substance, E. A. Peel**
> "Educational psychology is that branch of psychology which deals with the teaching–learning process." — **Skinner** (in substance)

21.3 Scope of educational psychology

Table 21.1 — Scope of educational psychology

Area	What it studies
The learner	Age, intelligence, personality, motivation, attitude, individual differences.
The learning process	How learning takes place; principles, laws and conditions of learning.
The teaching process	Methods, principles of teaching, the teaching–learning situation.
Learning situations	The elements that make learning effective.
Evaluation	How to measure learning and behaviour change.
Guidance	Helping the learner to overcome difficulties.

21.4 Importance of educational psychology in agricultural extension

- **Understanding the farmer:** it explains why farmers differ in intelligence, attitude and readiness to change.

- **Effective teaching:** it gives the principles of teaching that make extension messages clear.
- **Motivation:** it shows how to create and sustain the farmer's interest.
- **Choosing methods:** it helps to select the method that suits the learner's age and ability.
- **Individual differences:** it warns the worker that one method will not suit every farmer.
- **Adult learning:** it explains the special features of adult learners.
- **Behaviour change:** it provides the basis for changing knowledge, attitude, skill and behaviour.

21.5 Adult learners in extension

The farmer is an adult learner, and adults learn differently from children. Adults are self-directed, they bring much experience, they want practical and immediate usefulness, and they learn best when the subject is related to a problem they already feel. Educational psychology guides the extension worker to respect these features.

21.6 Schools of psychology

Psychology has developed through several schools of thought. A brief knowledge of them helps the student to understand how the subject grew.

Table 21.2 — Main schools of psychology

School	Main idea
Structuralism	Studies the structure of the mind by breaking experience into its elements.
Functionalism	Studies how the mind helps a person to adapt to his environment.
Behaviourism	Studies only observable behaviour — stimulus and response — not the mind.
Gestalt	Studies experience as a whole; "the whole is more than the sum of its parts".
Psychoanalysis	Studies unconscious drives and their effect on behaviour.

Exam focus — Lecture 21

Key points

- Psychology is the science of behaviour and mental processes; definitions by Woodworth and McDougall.
- Educational psychology studies the learner and the teaching–learning process.
- Scope: the learner, learning, teaching, learning situations, evaluation, guidance.
- Importance in extension: understanding the farmer, effective teaching, motivation, method choice, individual differences.
- Farmers are adult learners — self-directed, experienced, practical.

Short-answer questions

1. Define psychology.
Psychology is the science of the behaviour of organisms (Woodworth).

2. Define educational psychology.
Educational psychology is the branch of psychology that studies the behaviour of the learner in relation to the educative process and deals with the teaching–learning process.

3. State any two uses of educational psychology in extension work.
It helps to understand the farmer and his individual differences, and it gives the principles of teaching and motivation that make extension messages effective.

Long-answer questions

1. Explain the meaning, definition and scope of educational psychology.
Outline: Definitions of psychology and educational psychology; Table 21.1 of scope; conclusion.

2. Discuss the importance of educational psychology in agricultural extension.
Outline: The seven points in Section 21.4; the special features of adult learners; conclusion.

Lecture 22: Basics of Human Behaviour — Definition and Characteristics

22.1 Meaning of behaviour

Behaviour is everything a person does — his actions, words, thoughts, feelings and reactions to the world around him. It includes both what is visible (working, talking, walking) and what is hidden (thinking, feeling, imagining). Behaviour is the response of a person to a stimulus or situation.

> **Definition — Behaviour**
> “Behaviour is the sum total of the responses of an organism to its environment.” — **in substance, Woodworth**

22.2 The stimulus–response idea

Behaviour can be understood as a chain: a **stimulus** (something that acts on the person) produces a **response** (the behaviour). A farmer sees a diseased crop (stimulus) and sprays a pesticide (response). Between the stimulus and the response lie the person’s needs, knowledge, attitude and personality. Understanding behaviour means understanding this whole chain.

22.3 Characteristics of human behaviour

- **Purposeful or goal-directed:** behaviour aims at satisfying a need or reaching a goal.
- **Learned and acquired:** much behaviour is learned from family, society and experience.
- **Dynamic and changing:** behaviour changes with time, situation and need.
- **Influenced by both heredity and environment:** nature and nurture together shape behaviour.
- **Individual:** no two persons behave exactly alike, even in the same situation.
- **Integrated:** the whole person acts together — body, mind and feelings.
- **Socially influenced:** the group and the culture guide what behaviour is acceptable.
- **Both conscious and unconscious:** a person is not always aware of the reasons for his behaviour.

22.4 Types of behaviour

Table 22.1 — Types of human behaviour

Type	Explanation and example
Innate behaviour	Present from birth — reflex action such as blinking.
Learned behaviour	Acquired through experience — learning to drive a tractor.
Overt behaviour	Visible to others — sowing, talking, walking.
Covert behaviour	Hidden within — thinking, feeling, planning.
Individual behaviour	Acting alone — a farmer deciding to buy seed.
Group behaviour	Acting with others — a cooperative meeting taking a decision.

22.5 Importance of understanding behaviour in extension

- Extension aims at **behaviour change**; so behaviour must first be understood.
- It helps to predict how farmers will respond to a new idea.
- It shows that the same message may produce different responses in different farmers.
- It guides the choice of method and the manner of approach.
- It helps to deal patiently with resistance and to remove the real cause.

22.6 Motives behind behaviour

Behaviour is driven by **motives** — the needs and desires that make a person act. Motives are of two kinds.

Table 22.2 — Primary and secondary motives

Type	Nature	Examples
Primary (biological) motives	Inborn needs of the body.	Hunger, thirst, sleep, rest, avoidance of pain.
Secondary (learned) motives	Acquired through society and experience.	Need for money, prestige, security, affiliation, achievement.

In extension, both kinds of motive matter. A farmer may adopt a new crop for a **primary** reason (to feed his family) or a **secondary** reason (to earn money or gain respect). Knowing which motive is strongest helps the worker to make the right appeal.

Exam focus — Lecture 22

Key points

- Behaviour is the sum total of a person’s responses to the environment.
- Behaviour follows the stimulus–response chain, with needs, attitude and personality in between.
- Characteristics: purposeful, learned, dynamic, influenced by heredity and environment, individual, integrated, social.
- Types: innate, learned, overt, covert, individual, group.
- Extension aims at behaviour change, so behaviour must be understood.

Short-answer questions

1. Define behaviour.
Behaviour is the sum total of the responses of an organism to its environment.

2. Distinguish between overt and covert behaviour.
Overt behaviour is visible to others (sowing, talking), while covert behaviour is hidden within the person (thinking, feeling).

3. State any three characteristics of human behaviour.
It is purposeful or goal-directed; it is learned; it is dynamic and changing; it is influenced by heredity and environment; it is individual.

Long-answer questions

1. Explain the meaning and characteristics of human behaviour.
Outline: Definition; the stimulus–response idea; the eight characteristics; Table 22.1 of types; conclusion.

2. Why is the understanding of human behaviour important in agricultural extension?
Outline: The five points in Section 22.5; example of differing responses to one message; conclusion.

Lecture 23: Factors Influencing Behaviour — Biological, Psychological and Social

23.1 Three groups of factors

A person’s behaviour is shaped by many forces, which are conveniently grouped into three: **biological** (factors of the body), **psychological** (factors of the mind) and **social** (factors of society). Fig. 11 shows these three groups as three interlocking circles, because they act together and overlap.

Fig. 11 Factors Influencing Human Behaviour

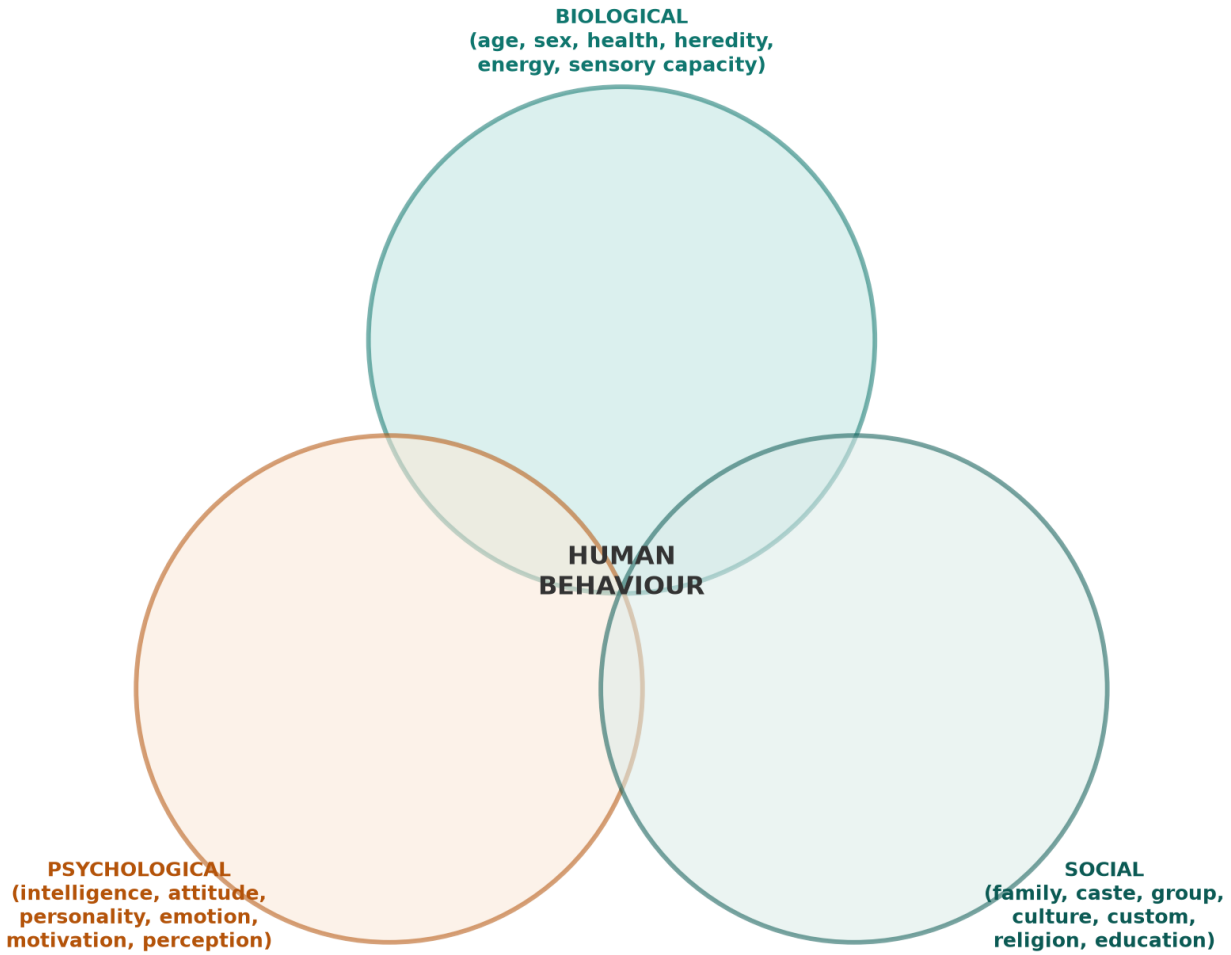


Fig. 11 — Factors influencing human behaviour: biological, psychological and social.

23.2 Biological factors

- **Age:** the energy, needs and outlook of a young farmer differ from those of an old farmer.
- **Sex:** men and women often have different roles and therefore different behaviour.

- **Health and physique:** a healthy farmer works longer and adopts labour-saving tools less urgently.
- **Heredity:** inborn capacities and temperament influence behaviour.
- **Energy and sensory capacity:** eyesight, hearing and stamina affect how a farmer learns and works.

23.3 Psychological factors

- **Intelligence:** the ability to understand and apply new ideas.
- **Attitude:** a favourable attitude speeds adoption; an unfavourable one blocks it.
- **Personality:** an outgoing person mixes easily; a shy person keeps away.
- **Emotion:** fear, anger and anxiety affect decisions, especially in risk.
- **Motivation:** the inner drive that starts and sustains action.
- **Perception:** how a farmer sees a problem depends on his perception.

23.4 Social factors

- **Family:** the family decides what the household will do.
- **Caste and class:** position in society affects opportunity and outlook.
- **Group and neighbourhood:** the group's opinion strongly influences the individual.
- **Culture and custom:** what is customary is done without question.
- **Religion:** beliefs and festivals guide conduct.
- **Education and mass media:** schooling, radio, television and mobile phones widen outlook.

Table 23.1 — The three groups of factors and their effect in extension

Factor group	Examples	Effect on extension
Biological	Age, sex, health, heredity, sensory capacity	Choose methods suited to age and physical ability; use labour-saving tools for the weak.
Psychological	Intelligence, attitude, personality, emotion, motivation	Build a favourable attitude; use simple, clear teaching; motivate by showing benefit.
Social	Family, caste, group, culture, religion, education	Work through family and group; respect custom; use local leaders.

23.5 Importance of understanding behaviour in extension

When an extension worker knows which factor is blocking a farmer, he can act correctly. If the block is **biological**, he may suggest a labour-saving tool. If it is **psychological**, he may build confidence by demonstration. If it is **social**, he may work through the group or the leader. In this way, understanding the factors of behaviour turns a vague problem into a clear solution.

Worked example — A behaviour analysis case

A woman farmer in a village refuses to adopt a kitchen-garden demonstration although the officer has explained it twice. A behaviour analysis is carried out by examining the three groups of factors.

Factor group	What was found	Action taken
Biological	She is elderly and finds bending and watering tiring.	Suggest a raised-bed garden and a small watering can.
Psychological	She feels she “cannot manage” a new activity.	Show a neighbour’s success; start with two vegetable crops only.
Social	Her family says there is no spare land near the house.	Talk to the family; use the space beside the cattle shed.

By removing one cause from each group, the officer changed the woman’s behaviour — she adopted the kitchen garden within one month. This shows that behaviour has many causes, and the real cause must be found before action.

23.6 Heredity and environment in behaviour

Two great influences shape behaviour: **heredity** (what a person is born with) and **environment** (what he learns from his surroundings). Both matter, and the two cannot be separated in practice.

- **Heredity** provides inborn capacity — physical build, temperament and sensory ability.
- **Environment** provides experience — family, education, culture, contact and opportunity.
- A person with good inborn capacity in a poor environment may not develop it fully.
- A person with average capacity in a rich, encouraging environment may develop very well.
- For extension this means that **the learning environment can be improved** — through education, demonstration and exposure — and behaviour along with it.

Exam focus — Lecture 23

Key points

- Behaviour is influenced by three groups of factors — biological, psychological and social — which overlap.
- Biological: age, sex, health, heredity, sensory capacity.
- Psychological: intelligence, attitude, personality, emotion, motivation, perception.
- Social: family, caste, group, culture, religion, education.
- Identifying the blocking factor tells the worker what action to take.
- Behaviour has many causes; the real cause must be found.

Short-answer questions

1. Name the three groups of factors influencing human behaviour.
Biological, psychological and social factors.

2. Give two examples each of biological and social factors.
Biological — age and health; social — family and caste (or group and religion).

3. Why is understanding behaviour important in extension?
Because extension aims at behaviour change; understanding the factors behind behaviour tells the worker what action to take to bring about that change.

Long-answer questions

1. Explain the biological, psychological and social factors influencing human behaviour.
Outline: Fig. 11; explain each group with examples; Table 23.1; conclusion.

2. How does an understanding of the factors of behaviour help an extension worker?
Outline: Explain that each factor needs a different action; the behaviour analysis worked example; conclusion.

Lecture 24: Intelligence — Meaning, Definitions, Gardner’s Multiple Intelligences and Types

24.1 Meaning of intelligence

Intelligence is the ability to learn from experience, to reason, to solve problems and to adapt to new situations. A farmer who quickly understands a new method, works out the cost and decides wisely is showing intelligence. Intelligence is not the same as education; a farmer with little schooling may still be highly intelligent in practical matters.

> **Definition — Intelligence**
> “Intelligence is the aggregate or global capacity of the individual to act purposefully, to think rationally and to deal effectively with his environment.” — **David Wechsler**
> “Intelligence is the ability to undertake activities that are characterised by difficulty, complexity, abstractness and adaptiveness to a goal.” — **E. L. Thorndike** (in substance)

24.2 Types of intelligence

Traditionally intelligence was divided into two kinds:

- **Concrete intelligence:** the ability to deal with objects and things — a farmer judging a seed by its look and feel.
- **Abstract intelligence:** the ability to deal with ideas, symbols and language — understanding a leaflet or a cost calculation.

Modern psychology also speaks of **general intelligence** (a common ability used in all tasks) and **specific abilities** (special talents such as music or mathematics).

24.3 Gardner’s theory of multiple intelligences

Howard Gardner argued that intelligence is not one single ability but several independent abilities. A person may be weak in one and strong in another. Gardner proposed eight intelligences. This theory is important for extension because it reminds the worker that farmers have different strengths, and teaching should use several channels.

Table 24.1 — Gardner’s multiple intelligences and their use in extension

Intelligence	What it means	Use in extension
Linguistic	Skill with words and language.	Good speakers; use them in group discussions.
Logical–mathematical	Reasoning, numbers, calculation.	Farmers who calculate cost and profit; teach with figures.
Spatial	Pictures, shapes and space.	Charts, diagrams and field maps work well.
Musical	Sensitivity to sound, rhythm and tune.	Songs and street plays carry messages.
Bodily-kinaesthetic	Skill in using the body and hands.	Method demonstrations; learning by doing.
Interpersonal	Understanding and dealing with people.	Natural leaders and group organisers.
Intrapersonal	Understanding oneself.	Self-confident farmers who try new things first.
Naturalistic	Sensitivity to nature, plants and animals.	Excellent observers of crops, pests and weather.

24.4 Intelligence and extension work

- Intelligence decides how quickly a farmer understands a new idea.
- It helps the worker to judge how simple or detailed the message should be.
- Gardner’s theory tells the worker to use many channels — words, pictures, demonstration and song.
- Intelligent farmers become early adopters and leaders.
- Intelligence is not fixed; training and experience improve performance.

24.5 Measurement of intelligence and the IQ

Intelligence is measured by **intelligence tests**. The result is expressed as the **Intelligence Quotient (IQ)**.

> **Formula — Intelligence Quotient**
> IQ = (Mental Age ÷ Chronological Age) × 100

Mental age (MA) is the age at which the average person can do the tasks a given person can do; **chronological age (CA)** is the person’s actual age.

Worked example — Calculating IQ

A 10-year-old boy can solve problems that an average 12-year-old can solve. His mental age is therefore 12 years and his chronological age is 10 years.

IQ = (12 ÷ 10) × 100 = **120**. An IQ of 120 is above average.

IQ range	Classification
Above 130	Very superior
120–129	Superior
110–119	High average
90–109	Average
80–89	Low average
Below 70	Below average

IQ tests are used only for guidance. A farmer’s practical intelligence and experience matter more in extension than any single score, so a low IQ score must never be used to deny a person advice or training.

Exam focus — Lecture 24

Key points

- Intelligence is the ability to learn, reason, solve problems and adapt.
- Definition: David Wechsler.
- Traditional types: concrete and abstract intelligence; also general and specific abilities.
- Gardner proposed eight multiple intelligences: linguistic, logical–mathematical, spatial, musical, bodily–kinaesthetic, interpersonal, intrapersonal and naturalistic.
- Gardner’s theory advises teaching through many channels.
- Intelligence is not the same as education and is not fixed.

Short-answer questions

1. Define intelligence.
Intelligence is the aggregate or global capacity of the individual to act purposefully, to think rationally and to deal effectively with his environment (David Wechsler).

2. Name any four of Gardner’s multiple intelligences.
Linguistic, logical–mathematical, spatial, musical, bodily–kinaesthetic, interpersonal, intrapersonal and naturalistic (any four).

3. Distinguish between concrete and abstract intelligence.
Concrete intelligence deals with objects and things, while abstract intelligence deals with ideas, symbols and language.

Long-answer questions

1. Explain the meaning of intelligence and Gardner’s theory of multiple intelligences.
Outline: Definition; traditional types; Table 24.1 of the eight intelligences with their use in extension; conclusion.

2. Discuss the importance of intelligence in agricultural extension.
Outline: The five points in Section 24.4; give examples; conclusion.

Lecture 25: Factors Affecting Intelligence and the Importance of Intelligence in Agricultural Extension

25.1 Factors affecting intelligence

Intelligence is the result of both nature and nurture — of what a person is born with and what his environment gives him. The main factors are grouped below.

Table 25.1 — Factors affecting intelligence

Factor	How it affects intelligence
Heredity	Inborn capacity sets the upper limit of a person’s intelligence.
Environment	A stimulating environment helps intelligence to develop fully.
Health and nutrition	Malnutrition and ill health in childhood reduce mental development.
Education and training	Schooling and training develop reasoning and knowledge.
Family and social background	Encouragement, books and conversation at home help.
Age	Intelligence grows in childhood and youth and stabilises in adulthood.
Sex	Little overall difference; abilities may differ in pattern.
Opportunity and experience	Contact with towns, media and travel widens the mind.

25.2 Heredity and environment together

Heredity provides the *potential*; environment decides how much of it is *realised*. A child born with good capacity in a poor, unstimulating home may never develop it, while a child of average capacity in a good home may develop well. In rural areas, the extension worker can improve the environment of learning — through education, demonstrations and exposure — and thus help intelligence to grow.

25.3 Importance of intelligence in agricultural extension

- **Judging the audience:** the worker can pitch the message at the right level.
- **Identifying early adopters:** more intelligent farmers try new ideas first and can be used as leaders.
- **Choosing the method:** abstract ideas need more explanation; concrete ideas can be shown.
- **Building understanding:** the worker explains *why* a practice works, not only *what* to do.
- **Reducing resistance:** understanding removes doubt and superstition.
- **Planning training:** training can be graded from simple to complex to suit all levels.

25.4 Practical implications for the extension worker

- Use simple language and familiar examples.
- Combine words with pictures and demonstrations, so that all levels of intelligence are reached.
- Repeat important points; repetition helps the average learner.
- Give reasons, not orders; reasoning appeals to intelligence.
- Encourage questions and discussion to develop thinking.

25.5 Distribution of intelligence in a population

When the intelligence of a large number of people is measured, the scores form a **normal curve** — a bell-shaped curve with most people near the middle and very few at the extremes.

Table 25.2 — Distribution of intelligence

Group	Approx. share	Description
Very superior	About 1%	A very small number with exceptional ability.
Superior	About 10%	Above average; quick learners.
Average	About 70%	The large middle group; most farmers fall here.
Dull / below average	About 18%	Slower learners who need more help.
Very dull / defective	About 1%	Need special support.

The practical meaning for extension is simple: **most farmers are of average intelligence**. A message designed for the average farmer, taught simply and clearly, will reach the great majority. The very able few can be developed as leaders, and the slower few need patient, repeated teaching.

Exam focus — Lecture 25

Key points

- Intelligence is affected by heredity, environment, health, nutrition, education, family background, age and opportunity.
- Heredity gives potential; environment decides how much is realised.
- Intelligence helps the worker judge the audience and choose the method.
- More intelligent farmers become early adopters and leaders.
- Extension can improve the learning environment and thus help intelligence to develop.

Short-answer questions

1. Name any four factors affecting intelligence.
Heredity, environment, health and nutrition, education and training, family background, age (any four).

2. How do heredity and environment together affect intelligence?
Heredity sets the potential or upper limit, while the environment decides how much of that potential is actually developed.

3. Give two practical implications of intelligence for the extension worker.
Use simple language with familiar examples; combine words with pictures and demonstrations to reach all levels of intelligence.

Long-answer questions

1. Explain the factors affecting intelligence.
Outline: Table 25.1; explain heredity and environment together; conclusion.

2. Discuss the importance of intelligence in agricultural extension work.
Outline: The six points in Section 25.3; the practical implications in Section 25.4; conclusion.

Lecture 26: Personality — Meaning, Definition, Types, Factors Influencing Personality and Role in Extension

26.1 Meaning of personality

Personality is the total pattern of a person's characteristics — the way he thinks, feels and behaves. It is what makes one person different from another. Personality includes temperament, interests, attitudes, abilities and habits, and it is shown in the way a person deals with other people and with his work.

> **Definition — Personality**
> "Personality is the dynamic organisation within the individual of those psychophysical systems that determine his unique adjustment to his environment." — **Gordon Allport**
> "Personality is the sum total of the ways in which an individual reacts to and interacts with others." — **in substance, Eysenck**

26.2 Types of personality

Personality has been classified in many ways. The classifications most useful for extension are given below.

Table 26.1 — Types of personality

Classification	Types	Feature
By temperament (Hippocrates / Jung)	Extrovert	Outgoing, sociable, talkative; acts quickly.
	Introvert	Shy, reserved, thoughtful; thinks before acting.
By body build (Kretschmer)	Pyknic	Stout, sociable, cheerful.
	Athletic	Strong, energetic, active.
	Leptosomic	Thin, sensitive, reserved.
By attitude to change	Progressive	Welcomes new ideas; becomes an early adopter.
	Conservative	Prefers old ways; adopts late or never.

26.3 Factors influencing personality

- **Heredity:** inborn temperament, physical build and capacities.
- **Environment:** family, neighbourhood and village atmosphere.
- **Culture and society:** the values and customs of the community.
- **Education and experience:** schooling, training and life experience.
- **Family atmosphere:** affection, discipline and example at home.
- **Peer group:** friends and companions of youth.
- **Economic condition:** poverty or prosperity shapes outlook.
- **Mass media and contact with towns:** widen interests and change habits.

26.4 Needs and motivation in personality

Personality is closely tied to needs. A farmer’s behaviour is driven by his needs, from the most basic to the highest. Fig. 8 applies a Maslow-style hierarchy of needs to farmers — a useful way of understanding why a farmer acts as he does.

Fig. 8 Maslow-style Hierarchy of Needs Applied to Farmers

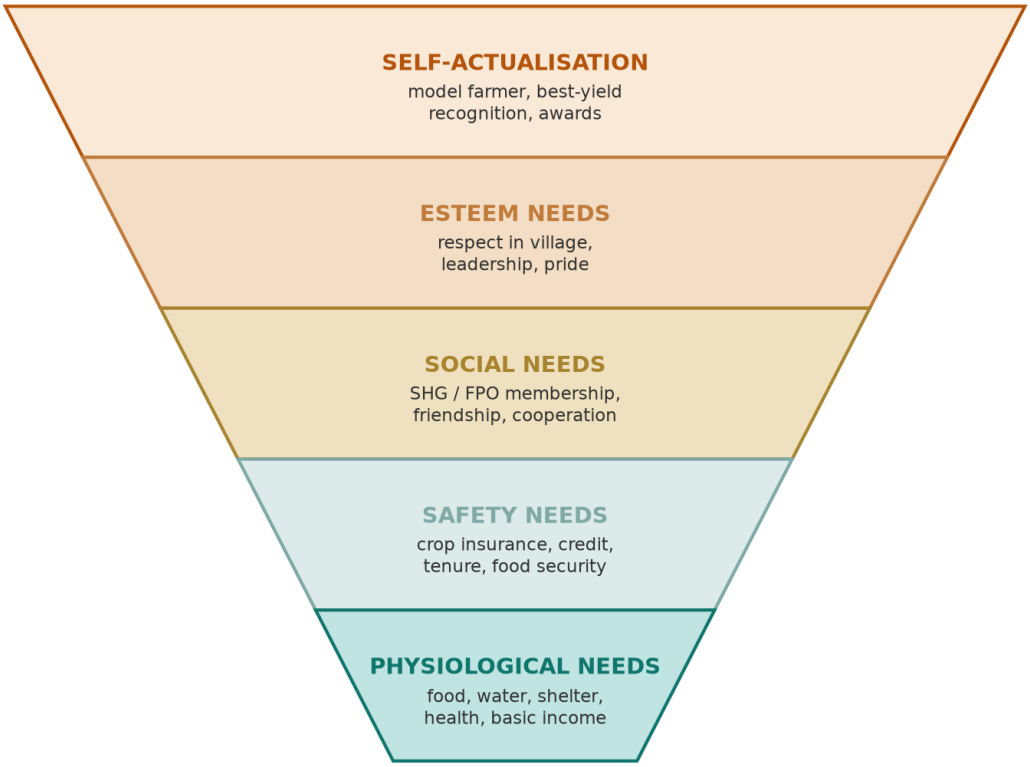


Fig. 8 — Maslow-style hierarchy of needs applied to farmers.

Until the lower needs — food, water, shelter, health and income — are met, a farmer is unlikely to be interested in higher needs such as recognition or self-development. Extension work is most successful when it is linked to the need the farmer feels most strongly at that time.

26.5 Role of personality in agricultural extension

- **Extrovert farmers** respond to group meetings and discussions; **introverts** respond better to personal visits.
- **Progressive personalities** become early adopters and leaders; **conservative** ones need proof and patience.
- Personality affects **risk-taking**; a cautious farmer needs insurance and sure results.
- The extension worker’s own personality matters; a friendly, patient worker is accepted more easily.

- Understanding personality helps to match the method to the person.

26.6 Traits of personality and behaviour

Personality is made up of **traits** — consistent qualities of behaviour such as honesty, sociability, aggressiveness, patience or self-confidence. A person’s behaviour in a given situation is the result of his traits acting together.

Table 26.2 — Common personality traits and their meaning in extension

Trait	Meaning and relevance
Sociability	Enjoys company; responds well to group methods.
Dominance	Wishes to lead; a potential local leader.
Self-confidence	Willing to try new things; an early adopter.
Patience	Waits for results; suits long-duration crops.
Suspicion	Distrusts new ideas; needs proof and time.
Thrift	Saves and invests; responds to credit and saving schemes.
Aggressiveness	Acts fast, sometimes without full information; needs guidance.

Traits are relatively stable but not fixed; education, experience and good example can gradually modify them. The extension worker studies the traits of a farmer so as to approach him in the way that suits him best.

Exam focus — Lecture 26

Key points

- Personality is the total pattern of a person’s characteristics.
- Definition: Gordon Allport.
- Types: extrovert and introvert; pyknic, athletic and leptosomic; progressive and conservative.
- Factors: heredity, environment, culture, education, family, peer group, economic condition, media.
- Maslow-style needs explain motivation: lower needs first, higher needs later.
- Personality decides how a farmer responds to a method; match method to personality.

Short-answer questions

1. Define personality.

Personality is the dynamic organisation within the individual of those psychophysical systems that determine his unique adjustment to his environment (Gordon Allport).

2. Distinguish between extrovert and introvert personality.

An extrovert is outgoing, sociable and talkative and acts quickly; an introvert is shy, reserved and thoughtful and thinks before acting.

3. Name any four factors influencing personality.

Heredity, environment, culture and society, education and experience, family atmosphere, peer group (any four).

Long-answer questions

1. Explain the meaning, types and factors influencing personality.

Outline: Definition; Table 26.1 of types; factors; Fig. 8 and the hierarchy of needs; conclusion.

2. Discuss the role of personality in agricultural extension.

Outline: The five points in Section 26.5; explain matching method to personality; give examples; conclusion.

Lecture 27: Sensation, Attention and Perception — Meaning, Definition and Factors

27.1 Sensation

Sensation is the simplest form of experience. It is what happens when a sense organ — eye, ear, nose, tongue or skin — is stimulated and the brain receives the message. Seeing a colour, hearing a sound and feeling heat are sensations. Sensation is the raw material of knowledge.

> **Definition — Sensation**
> "Sensation is the process by which a sense organ is stimulated and the resulting impulse is carried to the brain." — **in substance, Woodworth**

27.2 Attention

Attention is the focusing of the mind on one object or idea out of many. A farmer listening carefully to a demonstration is paying attention. Attention is selective — the mind cannot attend to everything at once. It is also the gateway to learning, because nothing is learned unless it is attended to.

> **Definition — Attention**
> "Attention is the concentration of consciousness upon one object rather than upon another." — **Dumville**

Factors of attention

Table 27.1 — Factors of attention

External (in the object)	Internal (in the person)
Intensity — a loud voice or bright colour attracts.	Interest — a topic that interests the farmer.
Size — a large chart or model is noticed more.	Need — attention to what a person needs.
Movement — moving objects attract attention.	Motivation and attitude.
Change and novelty — something new and different.	Habit and training.
Contrast — a dark figure on a white board.	Emotional state — calm mind attends better.
Repetition — repeated messages are attended to.	Health and fatigue — a tired person attends poorly.

27.3 Perception

Perception is the meaning that a person gives to a sensation. Two farmers may see the same diseased plant (sensation), but one perceives it as a serious threat and the other as a minor matter. Perception, therefore, depends not only on the object but also on the person's experience, needs and attitude.

> **Definition — Perception**
> "Perception is the process of interpreting sensory information to give it meaning." — **in substance, Garrett**

Factors influencing perception

- **Past experience:** a farmer who has suffered a pest attack sees the first signs quickly.
- **Needs and motivation:** a hungry person notices food; a worried farmer notices price news.
- **Attitude and values:** a person sees what he expects to see.
- **Emotional state:** fear makes a small risk look big.
- **Nature of the object:** clear, simple objects are perceived correctly; vague ones are misread.
- **Social and cultural background:** custom shapes what a person regards as normal.

27.4 Sensation, attention and perception in extension

- Use **intensity, size, movement, contrast and repetition** to gain attention in the field.
- Relate the message to the farmer's **interest and need** so that attention is sustained.
- Remember that **perception differs** from person to person; explain the meaning, not just the object.
- Clear, simple and familiar messages are perceived correctly.
- Repeat and reinforce, because attention wanders and perception is selective.

27.5 Errors in perception and the Gestalt laws

Perception is not always correct. Sometimes a person misreads what he sees or hears. The common errors are:

- **Illusion:** a wrong perception of a real object — a rope mistaken for a snake in dim light.
- **Hallucination:** perceiving an object that is not there at all.
- **Halo effect:** judging one quality by another — assuming a well-dressed farmer is also progressive.

- **Stereotyping:** judging a person by the group he belongs to rather than by himself.
- **First impression:** letting the first meeting decide the whole judgement.

The **Gestalt laws** of perception explain how people organise what they see: they group things that are **near** one another (proximity), things that are **similar** (similarity), things that form a **closed shape** (closure), and they tend to see a **figure against a background**. Extension workers use these laws when they design charts, posters and field layouts so that the important message stands out clearly.

Exam focus — Lecture 27

Key points

- Sensation is the stimulation of a sense organ and the message reaching the brain.
- Attention is the focusing of the mind on one object out of many.
- Factors of attention: external (intensity, size, movement, change, contrast, repetition) and internal (interest, need, motivation, habit, emotion, health).
- Perception is the meaning given to a sensation.
- Factors of perception: experience, needs, attitude, emotion, nature of the object, culture.
- Extension must gain attention and ensure correct perception.

Short-answer questions

1. Define attention.
Attention is the concentration of consciousness upon one object rather than upon another (Dumville).

2. Define perception.
Perception is the process of interpreting sensory information to give it meaning.

3. State any three external factors of attention.
Intensity, size, movement, change and novelty, contrast, repetition (any three).

Long-answer questions

1. Explain the meaning of sensation, attention and perception and the factors that influence them.
Outline: Definitions of the three; Table 27.1 of attention factors; factors of perception; conclusion.

2. How can an extension worker gain and hold the attention of farmers?
Outline: Use external factors (intensity, movement, contrast, repetition); use internal factors (interest, need, motivation); ensure correct perception; conclusion.

Lecture 28: Attitude — Concept and Factors Influencing the Attitude of Farmers

28.1 The concept of attitude

An **attitude** is a settled tendency to think, feel and act in a particular way towards an object, person or idea. It is learned, not inborn, and it guides behaviour. A farmer who believes that organic manure is better than chemical fertiliser has a favourable attitude towards organic farming and will act accordingly. Attitude lies between knowledge and practice: a farmer may know a practice but not adopt it because his attitude is unfavourable.

> **Definition — Attitude**
> "An attitude is a mental and neural state of readiness, organised through experience, exerting a directive or dynamic influence upon the individual's response to all objects and situations with which it is related." — **G. W. Allport**

28.2 Components of attitude

- **Cognitive component:** what the farmer knows or believes about the practice.
- **Affective component:** how the farmer feels about it — like or dislike.
- **Behavioural component:** the farmer's readiness to act — to try it or avoid it.

28.3 Factors influencing the development of attitude of farmers

Table 28.1 — Factors influencing farmers' attitudes

Factor	How it shapes attitude
Family and home	Early upbringing and family beliefs shape outlook.
Education and literacy	More education generally means a more favourable attitude to science.
Personal experience	Success with a practice creates a favourable attitude; failure creates the opposite.
Neighbours and reference group	A trusted neighbour's success changes attitudes quickly.
Local leaders and opinion leaders	Their example and advice strongly influence followers.
Extension contact	Frequent, useful contact with extension builds favourable attitudes.
Mass media	Radio, television, newspapers and mobile phones create awareness and shape views.
Economic condition and risk	Poverty and fear of loss make attitudes cautious or negative.
Religion and culture	Beliefs and customs support or oppose a practice.
Government policy and incentives	Subsidy, insurance and price support create favourable attitudes.

28.4 Changing farmers' attitudes

- **Give information first:** the cognitive component must be satisfied with facts.
- **Show proof:** demonstrations and result demonstrations work on the affective component.
- **Use trusted persons:** advice from a respected neighbour or leader is accepted more readily.
- **Reduce risk:** insurance, credit and a small first step make trying easier.
- **Be patient:** attitudes change slowly; repeated, friendly contact is needed.

28.5 Attitude and adoption

Adoption passes through a series of steps: **awareness → interest → evaluation → trial → adoption**. Attitude is most important at the evaluation stage, when the farmer weighs the pros and cons. If the attitude is favourable, he moves to trial; if not, he stops. Hence changing attitude is a central task of extension.

28.6 Measuring attitude and bringing about attitude change

Measuring attitude. Attitudes cannot be seen directly, so they are measured by asking questions. The **Likert scale** gives the farmer a set of statements and asks him to mark his agreement on a five-point scale (strongly agree to strongly disagree). The scores are added to give an attitude score for each farmer. Comparing scores before and after a programme shows whether attitudes have changed.

Bringing about attitude change. Attitude change follows a known path:

1. **Information:** give clear facts to satisfy the cognitive part.
2. **Demonstration:** show the result to work on the affective part.
3. **Trusted source:** let a respected leader or neighbour give the advice.
4. **Trial:** encourage a small first step to reduce the risk of failure.
5. **Reinforcement:** recognise and praise the farmer when he succeeds.

Attitudes change slowly. A single meeting rarely changes an attitude; repeated, friendly contact over a season usually does.

Exam focus — Lecture 28

Key points

- Attitude is a settled tendency to think, feel and act towards an object; it is learned.
- Definition: G. W. Allport.
- Components: cognitive, affective and behavioural.
- Factors: family, education, experience, neighbours, leaders, extension contact, media, economy, religion, policy.
- Attitudes are changed by information, proof, trusted persons, risk reduction and patience.
- Adoption stages: awareness, interest, evaluation, trial, adoption — attitude is crucial at evaluation.

Short-answer questions

1. Define attitude.
An attitude is a mental and neural state of readiness, organised through experience, exerting a directive or dynamic influence upon the individual's response to all objects and situations with which it is related (G. W. Allport).

2. Name the components of attitude.
Cognitive (knowledge), affective (feeling) and behavioural (readiness to act).

3. State any four factors influencing the attitude of farmers.
Family and home, education, personal experience, neighbours and reference group, local leaders, extension contact, mass media (any four).

Long-answer questions

1. Explain the concept of attitude and the factors influencing the attitude of farmers.
Outline: Definition and components; Table 28.1 of factors; conclusion.

2. How would you change an unfavourable attitude of farmers towards a new practice?
Outline: The five steps in Section 28.4; link to the adoption stages; give a village example; conclusion.

Lecture 29: Cognitive, Affective and Psychomotor Domains of Learning — Bloom’s Taxonomy

29.1 Domains of learning

Learning does not consist only of knowing facts. It also includes feelings and values, and physical skills. These three aspects are called the three **domains of learning**: the **cognitive** domain (the head — knowing), the **affective** domain (the heart — feeling) and the **psychomotor** domain (the hand — doing). Fig. 7 shows the three domains side by side.

Fig. 7 Three Domains of Learning (Bloom's Domains)

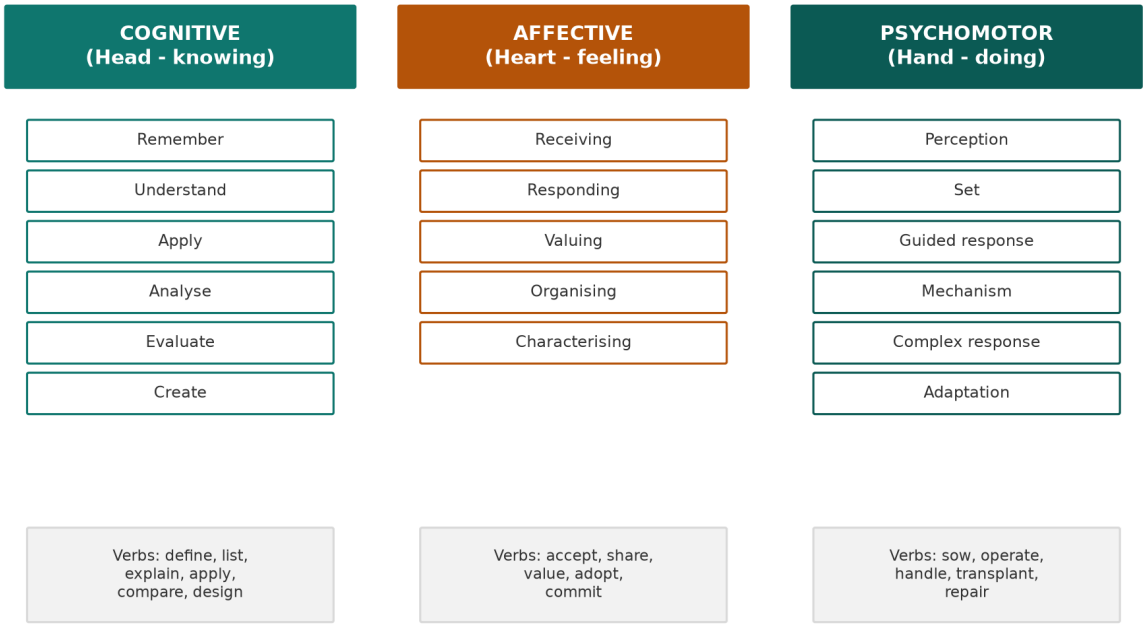


Fig. 7 — The three domains of learning: cognitive, affective and psychomotor.

29.2 Bloom’s taxonomy — the cognitive domain

Benjamin Bloom and his colleagues classified the cognitive domain into levels arranged from the simplest to the most complex. In the revised form the levels are **Remember, Understand, Apply, Analyse, Evaluate and Create**. Fig. 6 shows the taxonomy as a pyramid, with the simplest level at the base and the most complex at the top.

Fig. 6 Bloom's Taxonomy of Learning Objectives (revised order)

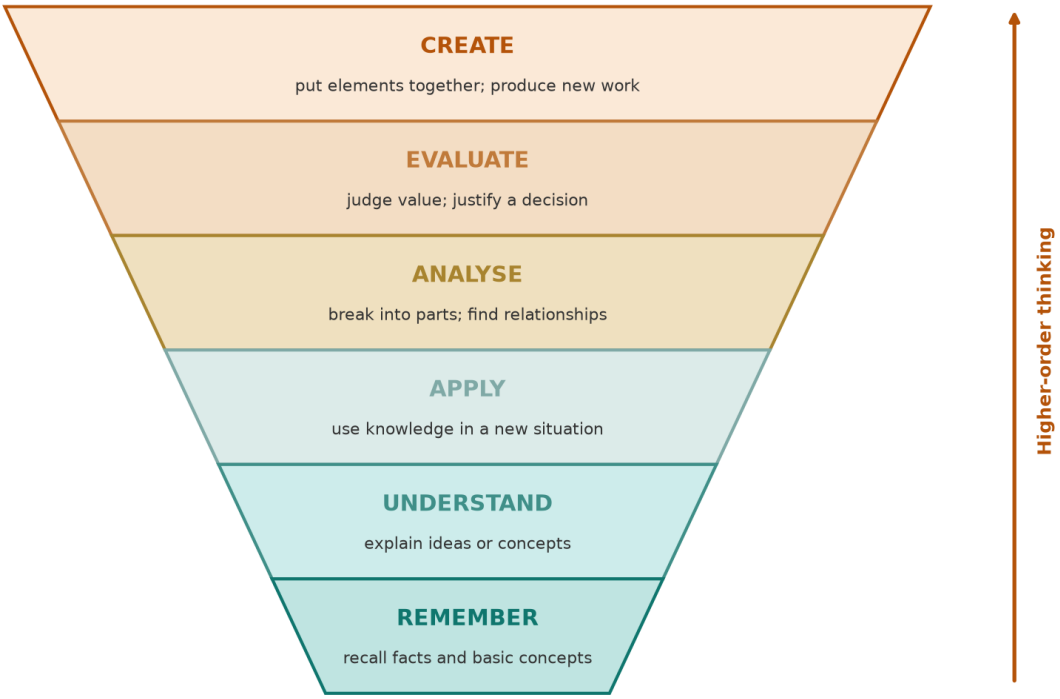


Fig. 6 — Bloom’s taxonomy of learning objectives (revised order).

Table 29.1 — Bloom’s taxonomy levels with action verbs

Level	Meaning	Typical verbs
Remember	Recall facts and basic concepts.	define, list, name, state, identify
Understand	Explain ideas or concepts in one’s own words.	explain, describe, summarise, classify
Apply	Use knowledge in a new situation.	apply, use, demonstrate, solve, practise
Analyse	Break into parts and find relationships.	analyse, compare, contrast, differentiate
Evaluate	Judge value and justify a decision.	evaluate, judge, justify, recommend
Create	Put elements together to produce something new.	create, design, plan, develop, construct

29.3 The affective domain

The affective domain deals with feelings, values and attitudes. Its levels, from simple to complex, are **Receiving, Responding, Valuing, Organising** and **Characterising**. A farmer first receives information, then responds to it, then values it, then organises it into his thinking, and finally makes it part of his character — a lasting habit.

29.4 The psychomotor domain

The psychomotor domain deals with physical skills. Its levels are **Perception, Set, Guided response, Mechanism, Complex response** and **Adaptation**. In extension this means learning to sow at the right spacing, to operate a machine, to prune a plant or to repair a pump — first under guidance, then by habit, then with skill in new situations.

29.5 Importance of Bloom's taxonomy for adult learning

- **Sets clear objectives:** the worker can state what the farmer should be able to do after training.
- **Grades the teaching:** teaching moves from simple recall to complex application.
- **Balances the three domains:** knowledge, feeling and skill are all developed.
- **Guides evaluation:** questions can be set at each level to test real learning.
- **Suitable for adults:** adults learn best when they move from knowledge to application and problem-solving.
- **Helps choose methods:** recall suits a talk; application suits a demonstration; creation suits a project.

Worked example — Writing extension objectives at different Bloom levels

Topic: **Integrated Pest Management (IPM) in paddy.** Objectives are written at each level of Bloom's taxonomy.

Level	Objective for the farmer
Remember	List the common pests of paddy.
Understand	Explain why pests are monitored before spraying.
Apply	Use the economic threshold level to decide when to spray.
Analyse	Compare biological control and chemical control in cost and safety.
Evaluate	Judge whether spraying is justified for a given field.
Create	Prepare an IPM plan for his own one-acre plot.

Thus the same topic is taught from simple recall to the ability to plan independently — exactly what adult learning requires.

29.6 Designing extension training using the three domains

A good training programme develops all three domains at once. The table below shows how a single topic — say, **dairy management** — is planned across the domains.

Table 29.2 — Planning training across the three domains

Domain	Objective	Method used
Cognitive	Know the correct feeding schedule and the signs of ill health.	Talk, chart, leaflet.
Affective	Value clean milk production and animal welfare.	Discussion, success story.
Psychomotor	Perform clean milking and hand-feeding correctly.	Method demonstration and practice.

If a training develops only the cognitive domain, the farmer may *know* the practice but never *do* it. If it develops only the psychomotor domain, he may perform the skill without understanding why. A balanced programme develops head, heart and hand together.

Exam focus — Lecture 29

Key points

- The three domains: cognitive (head), affective (heart) and psychomotor (hand).
- Cognitive levels (revised Bloom): Remember, Understand, Apply, Analyse, Evaluate, Create.
- Affective levels: Receiving, Responding, Valuing, Organising, Characterising.
- Psychomotor levels: Perception, Set, Guided response, Mechanism, Complex response, Adaptation.
- Each level has its own action verbs.
- Bloom’s taxonomy sets clear objectives, grades teaching, balances domains, guides evaluation and suits adult learning.

Short-answer questions

1. Name the three domains of learning.
Cognitive (knowing), affective (feeling) and psychomotor (doing).

2. List the six levels of the cognitive domain in the revised Bloom’s taxonomy.
Remember, Understand, Apply, Analyse, Evaluate and Create.

3. Give two action verbs for the ‘Apply’ level.
Apply, use, demonstrate, solve or practise (any two).

Long-answer questions

1. Explain the three domains of learning and Bloom’s taxonomy of the cognitive domain.
Outline: The three domains with Fig. 7; Bloom’s levels with Fig. 6 and Table 29.1; the affective and psychomotor levels; conclusion.

2. Discuss the importance of Bloom’s taxonomy for adult learning in extension.
Outline: The six points in Section 29.5; the worked example of objectives; conclusion.

Lecture 30: Teaching–Learning Process — Meaning of Teaching, Principles of Teaching and Steps in Extension Teaching

30.1 Meaning of teaching

Teaching is the process of arranging situations in which the learner is helped to learn. It is not merely telling or lecturing; it is guiding another person to gain knowledge, skill and attitude. In extension, teaching means helping the farmer to learn what he needs to know and to do.

> **Definition — Teaching**
> "Teaching is the process of arranging situations in which the learner is helped to learn." — **in substance, B. F. Skinner**
> "Teaching is the process of providing situations in which desirable changes in behaviour may take place." — **in substance, Yoakam and Simpson**

30.2 The teaching–learning process

Teaching and learning are two sides of one process. Teaching is what the teacher does; learning is what the learner does. Effective teaching produces learning, and learning is shown by a change in behaviour. In extension the teacher is the extension worker and the learner is the farmer; the process works best when both are active.

30.3 Principles of teaching

- **Know the learner:** understand his needs, ability, experience and background.
- **Begin at the learner's level:** start from what the farmer already knows and does.
- **Relate to real life:** use the farmer's own field, crop and problems.
- **Learning by doing:** the learner must take an active part, not merely listen.
- **Use many senses:** see, hear and do — this makes learning lasting.
- **Proceed from simple to complex:** step by step, from known to unknown.
- **Provide for individual differences:** different farmers learn at different speeds.
- **Motivate and interest:** link the lesson to a felt need.
- **Repeat and reinforce:** important points must be repeated.
- **Provide for evaluation:** check whether learning has taken place.

30.4 Steps in extension teaching

Extension teaching follows a definite sequence of steps. These steps form a cycle, because after evaluation the worker returns to the beginning to meet the next need. Fig. 10 shows this circular flow.

Fig. 10 Steps in Extension Teaching (circular flow)

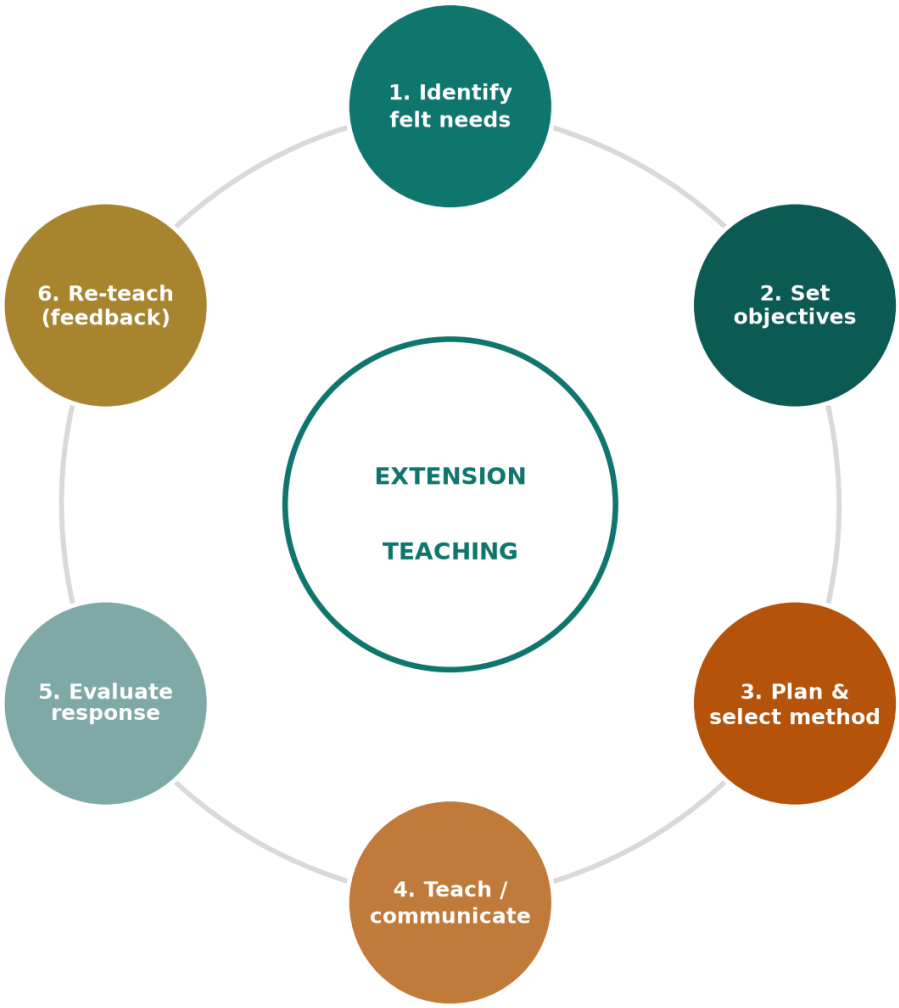


Fig. 10 — Steps in extension teaching shown as a circular flow.

Table 30.1 — Steps in extension teaching

Step	What the worker does
1. Identify felt needs	Find out the real problems and needs of the farmers.
2. Set objectives	Decide clearly what change in knowledge, attitude or skill is wanted.
3. Plan and select method	Choose the right method and teaching aids for the situation.
4. Teach / communicate	Carry out the teaching through the chosen method.
5. Evaluate response	Check how far the farmers have understood and adopted.
6. Re-teach (feedback)	Repeat, correct and improve; then start again with new needs.

30.5 Teaching methods used in extension

The choice of method follows the principle of “many methods for many situations”. Methods are broadly of three kinds: **individual contact** (farm and home visits, personal letters, telephone calls), **group contact** (method demonstrations, result demonstrations, meetings, discussions) and **mass contact** (radio, television, newspapers, campaigns, exhibitions). Each has its own use, and a good programme uses all three.

30.6 Maxims of teaching and teaching versus learning

Maxims of teaching are short guiding rules that make teaching effective. The important ones are: proceed from **known to unknown**, from **simple to complex**, from **easy to difficult**, from **concrete to abstract**, from **particular to general**, from **whole to part** and from **near to far**.

Table 30.2 — Teaching and learning compared

Basis	Teaching	Learning
Who acts	The teacher (extension worker).	The learner (farmer).
What it is	Arranging situations for learning.	Gaining knowledge, skill and attitude.
Result seen as	Effective communication.	Change in behaviour.
Direction	From teacher to learner.	Within the learner himself.
Depends on	Method, aids and skill of the teacher.	Readiness, motivation and practice of the learner.

Teaching without learning is a failure, however well it was delivered. Hence the worker judges his teaching not by what he said, but by what the farmers can now do.

Exam focus — Lecture 30

Key points

- Teaching is arranging situations in which the learner is helped to learn.
- Teaching and learning are two sides of one process; learning is shown by behaviour change.
- Principles: know the learner, begin at his level, relate to real life, learning by doing, use many senses, simple to complex, individual differences, motivation, repetition, evaluation.
- Steps: identify felt needs, set objectives, plan and select method, teach, evaluate, re-teach.
- Methods are individual, group and mass contact.

Short-answer questions

1. Define teaching.

Teaching is the process of arranging situations in which the learner is helped to learn, so that desirable changes in behaviour may take place.

2. Name the steps in extension teaching.

Identify felt needs; set objectives; plan and select method; teach/communicate; evaluate response; re-teach (feedback).

3. Give two principles of teaching.

Learning by doing; proceed from simple to complex; use many senses (any two).

Long-answer questions

1. Explain the principles of teaching with reference to extension work.

Outline: Definition of teaching; the ten principles; examples from a village demonstration; conclusion.

2. Describe the steps in extension teaching with the help of a diagram.

Outline: Fig. 10 circular flow; Table 30.1 step by step; explain why it is a cycle; conclusion.

Lecture 31: Learning Process — Learning, Learning Experience and Learning Situation

31.1 Meaning of learning

Learning is a change in behaviour that results from experience and practice. It is not a temporary change caused by fatigue or illness; it is a relatively permanent change brought about by what the learner does. A farmer who learns a new method and continues to use it has truly learned.

> **Definition — Learning**
> "Learning is the process of acquiring new knowledge, skills, habits and attitudes, resulting in a change in behaviour." — **in substance, Gates**
> "Learning is a relatively permanent change in behaviour that occurs as a result of practice or experience." — **in substance, Kimble**

31.2 Learning experience

A **learning experience** is the activity through which a learner learns. It is not what the teacher does, but what the learner does — sowing a row himself, weighing the yield, counting the insects on a plant. The more real and active the experience, the better the learning. Extension is built on the principle of learning by doing, so the learning experience is at its heart.

31.3 Learning situation

A **learning situation** is the whole set of conditions under which learning takes place. It includes the teacher, the learner, the subject-matter, the physical and social surroundings, and the learner's motivation. A good learning situation is one in which all these elements are present and in balance.

31.4 The three elements of learning (Leagans)

J. P. Leagans described learning as consisting of three essential elements: the **learner**, the **learning experience** and the **learning situation**. Extension succeeds when all three are attended to. The worker cannot change the learner's basic ability, but he can improve the experience and the situation.

31.5 Factors that help learning

- **Readiness:** the learner must be physically and mentally ready.
- **Motivation:** a strong felt need makes learning easy.
- **Active participation:** learning by doing is best remembered.
- **Repetition:** practice fixes learning.
- **Reward and satisfaction:** a good result encourages further learning.

- **Clear teaching material:** simple, familiar and well-presented.
- **Good physical and social setting:** a comfortable place and a friendly group.

31.6 The learning process in extension

In extension, learning begins with a felt need, moves through interest and information, then through trial and practice, and ends in adoption and satisfaction. The extension worker's task is to arrange a learning situation in which each of these steps can occur naturally in the farmer's own surroundings.

31.7 Types of learning and the learning curve

Learning is commonly classified into three types, matching the three domains of learning:

- **Cognitive learning:** gaining knowledge and understanding — learning the names of pests.
- **Affective learning:** gaining values, attitudes and interests — learning to value safe pesticide use.
- **Psychomotor learning:** gaining muscular skills — learning to operate a sprayer.

When a skill is practised repeatedly, progress can be plotted on a graph called the **learning curve**. The curve usually rises quickly at first, then slows, and may show a flat stretch called a **plateau**, after which it rises again with renewed effort. A plateau does not mean that learning has stopped; it often means that the learner needs a rest, a change of method or further encouragement.

Understanding the learning curve helps the extension worker to be patient: the early adopters learn fast, while the majority learn slowly and need repetition and encouragement.

Exam focus — Lecture 31

Key points

- Learning is a relatively permanent change in behaviour resulting from experience and practice.
- A learning experience is what the learner does; learning by doing is best.
- A learning situation is the whole set of conditions under which learning occurs.
- Leagans' three elements: the learner, the learning experience and the learning situation.
- Factors helping learning: readiness, motivation, participation, repetition, reward, clear material, good setting.
- In extension, learning runs from felt need to adoption and satisfaction.

Short-answer questions

1. Define learning.
Learning is a relatively permanent change in behaviour that occurs as a result of practice or experience.

2. What is a learning experience?
A learning experience is the activity through which the learner learns — what the learner himself does, such as sowing a row or weighing a yield.

3. Name the three elements of learning given by Leagans.
The learner, the learning experience and the learning situation.

Long-answer questions

1. Explain the meaning of learning, learning experience and learning situation.
Outline: Definitions of the three; Leagans' three elements; factors helping learning; conclusion.

2. Discuss the learning process in extension work.
Outline: Felt need to adoption; the role of experience and situation; give a village example; conclusion.

Lecture 32: Elements of the Learning Situation and Its Characteristics

32.1 The learning situation

The **learning situation** is the total setting in which teaching and learning take place. It is not just the place; it includes all the people, materials and conditions that help or hinder learning. Fig. 9 shows the five elements of the learning situation.

Fig. 9 Elements of the Learning Situation

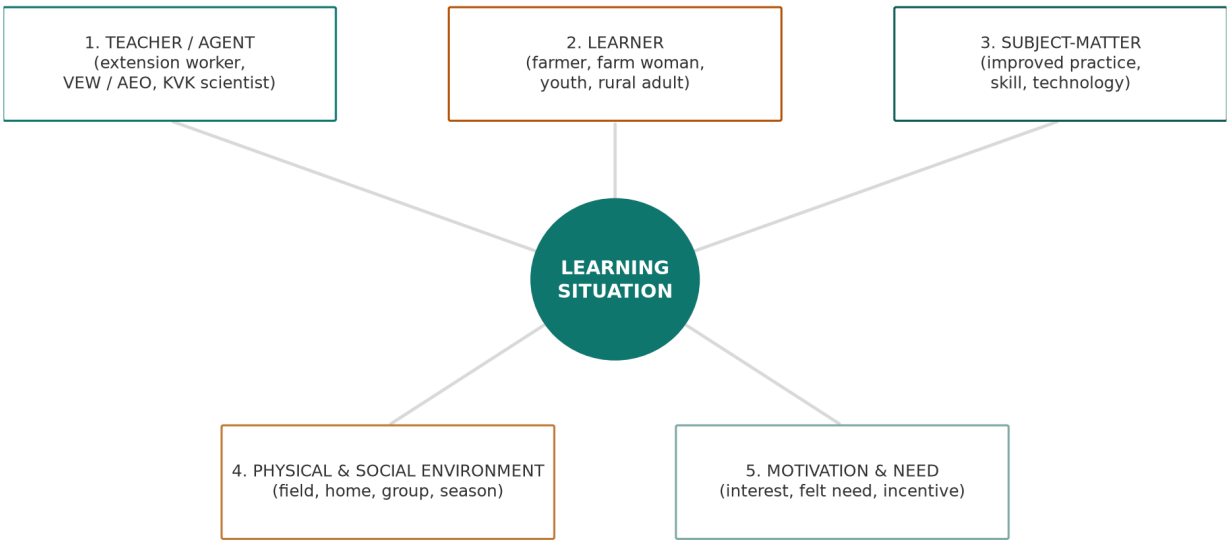


Fig. 9 — Elements of the learning situation.

32.2 Elements of the learning situation

Table 32.1 — Elements of the learning situation

Element	Explanation
1. Teacher / agent	The extension worker who arranges and guides the learning.
2. Learner	The farmer or farm woman who is to learn; his needs and ability matter.
3. Subject-matter	The improved practice, skill or technology to be learned.
4. Physical and social environment	The field, home, group, season and social atmosphere.
5. Motivation and need	The interest and felt need that drive the learner to learn.

32.3 Characteristics of a good learning situation

- **Based on a felt need:** it answers a problem the learner already feels.

- **Real and meaningful:** it uses the learner's own field, crop and materials.
- **Active:** it makes the learner do things, not merely listen.
- **Simple and graded:** it moves from the known to the unknown, from easy to difficult.
- **Friendly and free from fear:** the learner is not afraid of ridicule or loss.
- **Physically suitable:** good light, space, comfort and time.
- **Socially suitable:** it respects customs, caste and gender practices of the village.
- **Gives satisfaction:** the learner sees a useful result and feels rewarded.
- **Provides for repetition and practice:** so that learning becomes permanent.

32.4 Why these elements matter in extension

If any one element is weak, learning suffers. A good subject-matter without a felt need produces no interest; a willing learner without a suitable environment cannot practise; a good environment without motivation produces no action. The extension worker's skill lies in bringing all five elements together at the same time and place.

Worked example — Arranging a good learning situation for a demonstration

A worker plans a method demonstration on **transplanting paddy seedlings** in a delta village. He arranges the learning situation as follows:

Element	How it was arranged
Learner	20 farmers who have complained of poor establishment; a felt need exists.
Subject-matter	Correct seedling age (12–15 days) and single-seedling planting.
Teacher	The worker plus a trained local leader who has used the method.
Environment	The leader's own field, in the morning, on a day free of festival work.
Motivation	Shown the higher tillering and yield on the leader's plot from the previous season.

With all five elements in place, the farmers practised the method themselves and adopted it in their own fields.

32.5 Role of the extension worker in arranging the learning situation

The extension worker cannot force learning, but he can arrange the conditions in which it happens. His role is that of an organiser of learning situations.

- **Discover the felt need:** find the problem the farmers feel most strongly.
- **Choose the right place and time:** the farmer's own field, at a season and hour when he is free.
- **Provide the right materials:** seed, implements, charts and models for hands-on practice.
- **Create a friendly atmosphere:** a setting free from fear, ridicule or caste tension.

- **Bring in a trusted leader:** someone the farmers already respect, to set an example.
- **Keep it simple and graded:** one step at a time, from the known to the unknown.
- **Arrange for practice:** let the farmers do the work themselves, more than once.
- **Provide feedback:** tell the farmers how they have done and encourage them.

In short, the worker arranges the situation and then steps back, letting the farmer become the active learner. This is the real meaning of the principle of learning by doing.

Exam focus — Lecture 32

Key points

- The learning situation is the total setting of teaching and learning.
- Five elements: teacher, learner, subject-matter, environment, motivation and need.
- Characteristics: felt need, real, active, simple and graded, friendly, physically and socially suitable, satisfying, allows practice.
- If one element is weak, learning suffers.
- The worker’s skill is in combining all five elements.

Short-answer questions

1. Name the five elements of the learning situation.
Teacher/agent, learner, subject-matter, physical and social environment, and motivation and need.

2. State any three characteristics of a good learning situation.
It is based on a felt need; it is real and active; it is simple and graded; it is friendly and free from fear; it gives satisfaction (any three).

3. Why is motivation an essential element of the learning situation?
Because without interest and a felt need the learner will not attend or take part, and no learning can take place.

Long-answer questions

1. Explain the elements of the learning situation and its characteristics.
Outline: Fig. 9 and Table 32.1 of elements; the nine characteristics; the worked example; conclusion.

2. How would you arrange an effective learning situation for a field demonstration?
Outline: Take each of the five elements and show how it is arranged; use the worked example; conclusion.

Lecture 33: Principles of Learning and Their Implications for Teaching

33.1 Meaning of principles of learning

Principles of learning are the general rules, based on psychology, which describe the conditions under which learning takes place best. They are derived from experience and experiment and apply to all learners, including adult farmers. An extension worker who follows these principles teaches effectively.

33.2 The main principles of learning

Table 33.1 — Principles of learning and their implications for teaching

Principle	What it means	Implication for extension teaching
Readiness	Learning occurs best when the learner is ready.	Teach when the farmer is free and interested; not at peak work time.
Motivation	A felt need and interest drive learning.	Relate the lesson to a problem the farmer feels.
Learning by doing	Learning is best when the learner acts.	Use method demonstrations; let the farmer practise.
Multiple senses	More senses used, more is learned and retained.	Combine talk with charts, models and hands-on practice.
Known to unknown	New ideas are learned by linking with the familiar.	Start from the farmer's own practice, then introduce the new.
Simple to complex	Learning proceeds step by step.	Break a skill into small steps and teach in order.
Repetition	Repeated practice fixes learning.	Repeat key points; arrange follow-up visits.
Reward / satisfaction	Pleasant results strengthen learning.	Show quick, visible benefits; recognise the learner.
Individual differences	Learners differ in ability and speed.	Use different methods; give slow learners more help.
Feedback	Knowledge of results improves learning.	Evaluate and tell the farmer how he has done.

33.3 The laws of learning

Thorndike described three classic laws of learning, which are the basis of the principles above:

- **Law of readiness:** learning is better when the learner is prepared to learn.
- **Law of exercise:** learning is strengthened by practice and weakened by disuse.
- **Law of effect:** learning accompanied by a pleasant result is strengthened; learning followed by an unpleasant result is weakened.

33.4 Implications for extension teaching

- **Plan around the farmer’s calendar:** teach at the season and hour when the farmer is ready.
- **Create interest first:** a message without interest is wasted.
- **Make it practical:** demonstrations, field days and trials, not long speeches.
- **Use simple language and aids:** charts, models, real objects.
- **Repeat and follow up:** one meeting is never enough.
- **Give quick results and recognition:** the law of effect works in the farmer’s favour.
- **Respect individual differences:** not every farmer will learn at the same speed.
- **Evaluate and give feedback:** so that the farmer can correct himself.

33.5 Summary of the extension teaching approach

Putting all these principles together, the effective extension approach is: teach the farmer where he is, when he is ready, about what he feels he needs, in a way that uses his hands and eyes as well as his ears, in small steps, with repetition, with visible results and with friendly feedback. This is nothing but the application of the principles of learning to the daily work of extension.

33.6 Transfer of learning and the place of motivation

Transfer of learning means the effect of earlier learning on later learning. It is of two kinds. When earlier learning helps a new task, it is **positive transfer** — a farmer who can drive a car learns to drive a tractor more easily. When earlier learning hinders a new task, it is **negative transfer** — a habit of broadcasting paddy seed makes it harder to learn line planting.

Two conditions encourage positive transfer: **similarity** between the old and the new task, and the learner’s **understanding** of the underlying principle rather than mere memorising. This is why extension teaches the *reason* behind a practice, not just the practice itself.

Motivation runs through the whole process. Without motivation there is no readiness, no attention, no practice and no lasting learning. Motivation may come from within (a wish to improve) or from outside (a prize, subsidy or the example of a neighbour). The extension worker’s task is to awaken and sustain it.

Exam focus — Lecture 33

Key points

- Principles of learning are general rules describing the best conditions for learning.
- Main principles: readiness, motivation, learning by doing, multiple senses, known to unknown, simple to complex, repetition, reward, individual differences, feedback.
- Thorndike’s laws: readiness, exercise and effect.
- Implications: plan around the calendar, create interest, be practical, use aids, repeat, give results, respect differences, give feedback.
- The whole approach is the application of learning principles to extension work.

Short-answer questions

1. Name Thorndike’s three laws of learning.

The law of readiness, the law of exercise and the law of effect.

2. State the principle of learning by doing.

Learning is most effective when the learner himself performs the activity; hence method demonstrations and practice are important.

3. Give two implications of the principle of motivation for extension teaching.

Relate the lesson to a problem the farmer feels, and create interest before teaching the content.

Long-answer questions

1. Explain the principles of learning and their implications for teaching.

Outline: Meaning; Table 33.1 of principles and implications; Thorndike’s laws; conclusion.

2. How would you apply the principles of learning in planning an extension teaching programme?

Outline: The eight implications in Section 33.4; illustrate with a village training; the summary in Section 33.5; conclusion.

Annexure I: Glossary of Important Terms

Arranged alphabetically. These are the terms most often asked in the examination of AEX 102.

A

- **Adoption:** the decision by a farmer to make full use of a new practice on a continuing basis.
- **Affective domain:** the domain of learning that deals with feelings, values and attitudes.
- **Agricultural extension:** the educational process of helping farmers to improve farming methods, production, income and standard of living.
- **Attitude:** a learned, settled tendency to think, feel and act in a particular way towards an object or idea.
- **Attention:** the focusing of the mind on one object or idea out of many.

B

- **Behaviour:** the sum total of a person’s responses to his environment.
- **Bloom’s taxonomy:** the classification of learning objectives into levels — Remember, Understand, Apply, Analyse, Evaluate and Create (revised form).

C

- **Caste:** a hereditary, endogamous group with a traditional occupation and a fixed position in the local hierarchy.
- **Class:** a category of people having a similar economic and social position; open and changeable.
- **Cognitive domain:** the domain of learning that deals with knowledge and thinking.
- **Commodity group:** a group of farmers producing the same crop or product.
- **Cooperative:** a voluntary, member-owned organisation working on “one member, one vote”.
- **Culture:** the whole way of life of a people — their knowledge, beliefs, art, morals, customs and habits.
- **Custom:** a long-established, socially accepted usage followed by a community.

D

- **Demonstration (method):** teaching a skill by actually performing it before the learner.
- **Demonstration (result):** showing the result of a practice on a field over a season.
- **Diffusion:** the process by which a new idea or practice spreads through a social system over time.

E

- **Educational psychology:** the branch of psychology that studies the learner and the teaching–learning process.
- **Extension education:** informal, out-of-school education for rural people aimed at behaviour change.

F

- **Farmer Interest Group (FIG):** a small informal group of about 15–20 farmers formed around a common interest.
- **Farmer Producer Company (FPC):** a registered, farmer-owned company for input purchase, processing and marketing.
- **Folkways:** ordinary customary ways of behaving, not morally enforced.
- **Formal leader:** a leader who holds an office by election or appointment.

G

- **Gram panchayat:** the local self-government body of a village or group of villages.
- **Group:** two or more persons who interact, share interests and feel that they belong together.

H

- **Heredity:** the transmission of inborn characteristics from parents to children.

I

- **In-group:** the group with which a person identifies, giving a feeling of “we”.
- **Informal leader:** a leader who rises by influence and respect, without holding office.
- **Institution:** an organised pattern of behaviour that meets a basic social need.
- **Intelligence:** the ability to learn, reason, solve problems and adapt to new situations.

L

- **Lay leader:** an unpaid farmer or villager who leads his fellows without holding office.
- **Leadership:** the ability to influence others to work willingly towards a common goal.
- **Learning:** a relatively permanent change in behaviour resulting from practice or experience.
- **Learning situation:** the total setting, including teacher, learner, subject-matter, environment and motivation, in which learning occurs.

M

- **Mores:** folkways that have acquired moral importance and carry strong social approval or disapproval.
- **Motivation:** the inner drive that starts and sustains action towards a goal.
- **Multiple intelligences:** Gardner’s theory that intelligence consists of several independent abilities.

N

- **Non-Governmental Organisation (NGO):** a registered non-profit body engaged in development or social service.

O

- **Out-group:** a group regarded as “they”, to which a person does not belong.

P

- **Perception:** the meaning a person gives to a sensation.
- **Personality:** the total pattern of a person’s characteristics that determines his unique adjustment to his environment.
- **Primary group:** a small group with close, personal, face-to-face relations, such as the family.
- **Psychomotor domain:** the domain of learning that deals with physical skills.
- **Psychology:** the science of behaviour and mental processes.

R

- **Rural sociology:** the branch of sociology that studies rural society, its groups, institutions and changes.
- **Ritual:** a set, repeated symbolic act performed in a fixed manner.

S

- **Secondary group:** a large group with formal, indirect and impersonal relations, such as a cooperative.
- **Self-Help Group (SHG):** a small group, usually of women, that saves and lends to its members.
- **Sensation:** the stimulation of a sense organ and the message reaching the brain.
- **Social change:** any modification in the social organisation of a society.
- **Social control:** the sum of ways by which a society brings its members to conform to its norms.
- **Social institution:** an organised system of relationships meeting a basic social need.
- **Social organisation:** a deliberately formed body of people with a purpose and a structure.

- **Social stratification:** the division of society into ranked layers or strata.
- **Socialisation:** the process by which a person learns the culture and behaviour of his society.
- **Sociogram:** a diagram showing the pattern of choices and rejections within a group.
- **Sociometry:** the method, developed by Moreno, of measuring social relations by counting choices.
- **Sociology:** the science of society and social relationships.
- **Status:** the position or rank of a person in society.

T

- **Taboo:** a strong prohibition whose violation is believed to bring misfortune.
- **Teaching:** the process of arranging situations in which the learner is helped to learn.
- **Tradition:** a belief or practice handed down from generation to generation.
- **Training:** the process of increasing the knowledge and skill of a person for a definite purpose.

V

- **Value:** a standard of what is regarded as good, right and desirable.
- **Voluntary organisation:** an organisation formed by citizens to serve society without profit.

Annexure II: Reference List (Standard Texts)

These are the standard texts and course materials on which the subject of Rural Sociology and Educational Psychology is based. Students are advised to consult them in the library for deeper study.

Rural sociology

- Chitambar, J. B. *Introductory Rural Sociology.* Wiley Eastern Limited, New Delhi.
- Desai, A. R. *Rural Sociology in India.* Popular Prakashan, Bombay.
- Desai, A. R. *Rural India in Transition.* Popular Prakashan, Bombay.
- Doshi, S. L. and Jain, P. C. *Rural Sociology.* Rawat Publications, Jaipur.
- MacIver, R. M. and Page, C. H. *Society: An Introductory Analysis.* Macmillan, London.
- Srinivas, M. N. *Caste in Modern India and Other Essays.* Asia Publishing House, Bombay.
- Ray, G. L. *Extension Communication and Management.* Kalyani Publishers, New Delhi.

Extension education

- Dahama, O. P. and Bhatnagar, O. P. *Education and Communication for Development.* Oxford and IBH Publishing Co., New Delhi.
- Van den Ban, A. W. and Hawkins, H. S. *Agricultural Extension.* Longman Scientific and Technical, New York.
- Ray, G. L. *Extension Communication and Management.* Kalyani Publishers, New Delhi.
- Kelsey, L. D. and Hearne, C. C. *Cooperative Extension Work.* Comstock Publishing Associates, Ithaca.
- Reddy, A. A. *Extension Education.* Sri Lakshmi Press, Bapatla.

Educational psychology and communication

- Mangal, S. K. *Essentials of Educational Psychology.* Prentice-Hall of India, New Delhi.
- Chauhan, S. S. *Advanced Educational Psychology.* Vikas Publishing House, New Delhi.
- Woolfolk, A. *Educational Psychology.* Pearson Education, New Delhi.
- Supe, S. V. *An Introduction to Extension Education.* Oxford and IBH Publishing Co., New Delhi.

University and institutional course material

- Tamil Nadu Agricultural University, Coimbatore — course material and e-course content for *AEX 102 Rural Sociology and Educational Psychology.*
- ICAR e-Course material on *Extension Education and Rural Sociology* (Agricultural Extension Division, ICAR, New Delhi).
- ICAR e-Course material on *Educational Psychology and Communication* (Agricultural Extension Division, ICAR, New Delhi).
- Krishi Vigyan Kendra (KVK) training manuals and field demonstration guides, Tamil Nadu.

Government and programme documents

- Government of India — guidelines on Self-Help Groups, Farmer Interest Groups and Farmer Producer Companies (Small Farmers' Agribusiness Consortium and NABARD publications).
- Department of Agriculture, Government of Tamil Nadu — extension programme circulars and scheme guidelines.

Note on sources. The definitions and concepts in this material are drawn from the standard texts listed above and from the TNAU and ICAR course content for AEX 102. Where an author is named with a definition, the definition is given in substance from that author's standard work. Students should consult the original texts for exact wording and fuller treatment.